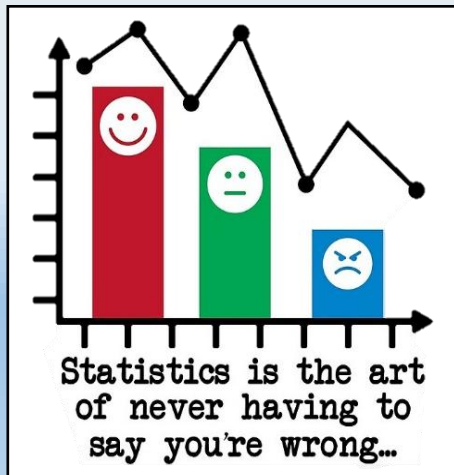


# Mathematics II (part 1)

## STATISTICS AND PROBABILITY



Ryan Fraser Kirwan

# Mathematics II (part 1)

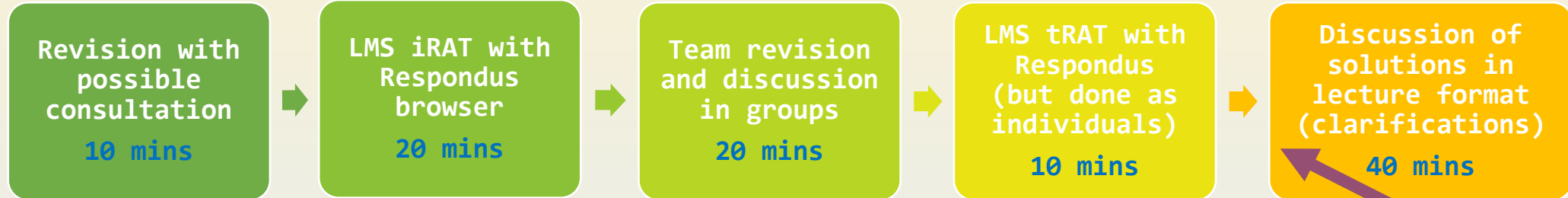
## Module schedule Trimester 2

| Wk    | Topic                                                                       |
|-------|-----------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| 1     | Descriptive Statistics                                                      |
| 2     | Probability Theory                                                          |
| 3     | Discrete Probability Distributions                                          |
| 4     | Continuous Probability Distributions                                        |
| 5     | Continuous and Sampling Distributions                                       |
| 6     | Continuation and Combination of topics + Revision sessions                  |
| 7     | Recess Week                                                                 |
| 8     | Linear Equations and Matrices                                               |
| 9     | Vectors and Geometry                                                        |
| 10    | Linear Transformations/Regression                                           |
| 11    | Linear Systems + Homogeneous Systems and Null Spaces                        |
| 12    | Matrix Decomposition + Eigenvalues                                          |
| 13    | Singular Value Decomposition (SVD) + Application of SVD to Machine Learning |
| 14    | Exam Week                                                                   |
| 16-18 | Trimester Break                                                             |

Attention: These topics are tentative, so may be subject to changes. Also, the final weeks will be very busy, so please plan appropriately. Thank you

# Mathematics II (part 1)

## MODULE INTRODUCTION: Team Based Learning



16:00 -> Pre-quiz chat/Consultation

16:10-16:20 -> begin iRAT (10mins for enter/exiting quiz, 19+1min for quiz)

16:40-17:00 -> rejoin main Zoom, then go into break-out rooms (20mins)

17:00-17:10 -> begin tRAT (10mins for enter/exiting quiz, 9+1min for quiz)

17:20 -> presentation of Solutions Lecture (runs until end of session)

**BREAK**  
**~10 mins**

### Each Week:

- Allocate Lecture Content and Exercise questions to complete
  - Deal with new content in Tutorial Sessions (week prior to assessment)
- RAT questions to cover Lecture content, Tutorials and **Video Resources**.
- RATs to be ~10 questions of MCQ and short-answer (number input for calculations)
- iRATs and tRATs for Weeks 2-6 (Assessments 1-5)
  - 25% (5% total each: 3% iRAT, 2% tRAT)
- Exam 50% for Week 14 (of this, half will be on first half content i.e., worth 25%)
  - Ideally this will be a proctored exam (done on paper), but this is pending feasibility



Enhanced video content  
+ additional Stats  
Resources on the LMS



- **OpenIntro Statistics 2nd Edition**  
by David Diez, Christopher Barr and Mine Cetinkaya-Rundel  
[http://www.openintro.org/stat/textbook.php?stat\\_book=os](http://www.openintro.org/stat/textbook.php?stat_book=os)



- **Mind on Statistics 5th Ed.** by J. M. Utts and R. F. Heckard Cengage Learning, 2015



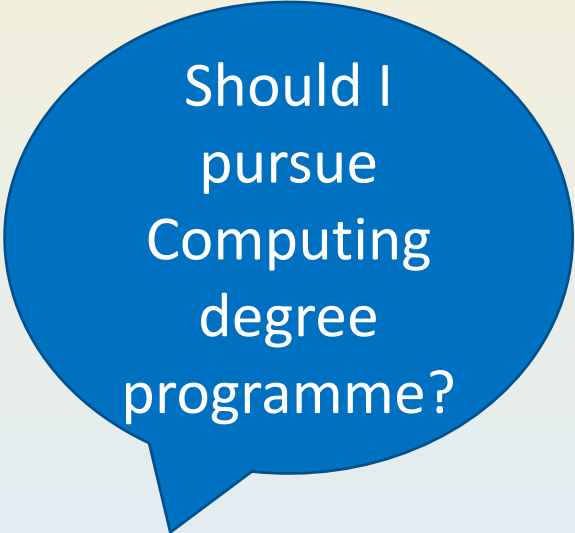
- **Introduction to Probability and Statistics 14th Ed.** by W. Mendenhall, R. J. Beaver and B. M. Beaver Cengage Learning, 2013

# STATISTICS

## INTRODUCTION TO STATISTICS

## What is Statistics?

- Our world is full of uncertainties and our life is filled with questions?



Should I  
pursue  
Computing  
degree  
programme?



Is using  
mobile  
phones  
harmful to  
health?



Is global  
warming  
propaganda?

- Statistics enables us to **collect** and **discover patterns in data** so as to **predict** and **make wiser decisions** for our questions.

# Introduction to Statistics

## Types of Statistics



### **Descriptive**

Collecting

Organizing

Summarizing

Presenting data

### **Inferential**

Making inferences

Hypothesis testing

Making predictions

Determining relationships



# Introduction to Statistics

## Types of Statistics: Example 1

- Of 280 randomly selected people in a town in Italy, 210 people had the last name Nicolussi.
- An example of **descriptive statistics** is the following statement:

“210 (75%) of these 280 people have the last name Nicolussi.”

- An example of **inferential statistics** could be the following statement :

“75% of all people living in Italy have the last name Nicolussi.”

# Introduction to Statistics

## Types of Statistics : Example 2

- On the last 3 Sundays, Henry sold 2, 1, and 0 new cars respectively.
- An example of **descriptive statistics** is the following statement :

"Henry averaged 1 new car sold, per Sunday, for the last 3 Sundays."

- An example of **inferential statistics** is the following statement :

"Henry never sells more than 2 cars on a Sunday."

Do you think the following are  
**Descriptive** or **Inferential**?

[ZOOM POLL]

### Descriptive or Inferential ?

1. Eighty-two percent of the 100 employees from a small local company attended the annual company picnic. (Descriptive)
2. The average age of freshman at the University of Georgia is currently 20.8 years old, based on the information from the registrar's office. (Descriptive)
3. The average number of hours vacationers spend in American national parks during the summer months is 4.5 hours. (Inferential)

# Introduction to Statistics

## Types of Statistics

### Descriptive

- Collecting
- Organizing
- Summarizing
- Presenting Data

### Probability Theory

“Probability Theory is the basis to link **Descriptive Statistics** with **Inferential Statistics**.”

### Inferential

- Making Inference
- Determining relationships
- Making predictions
- Hypothesis Testing

# Introduction to Statistics

## Types of Statistics

### Descriptive

- Collecting
- Organizing
- Summarizing
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"Probability Theory is the basis to link **Descriptive Statistics** with **Inferential Statistics**."

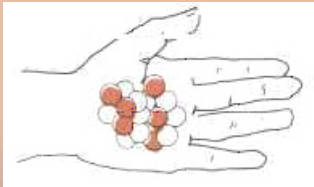
### Inferential

- Making Inference
- Determining relationships
- Making predictions
- Hypothesis Testing

## Descriptive

**Turning data into information**

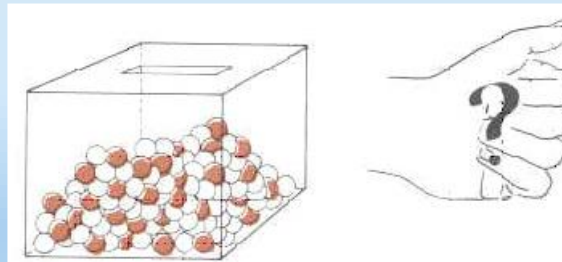
- Organize, summarize, and describe the data (outcomes from sample data).



## Probability Theory

**Understanding the uncertainty in data**

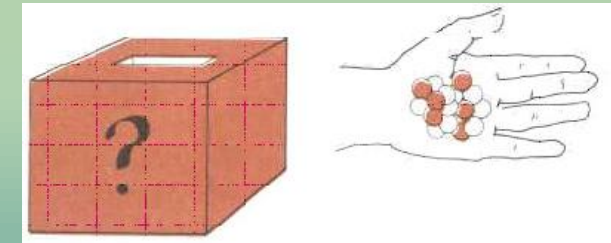
- Given the population, and sample size then predict applicability of the outcomes.



## Inferential

**Making decision from data**

- Given the outcomes, we can infer for the population in order to make decisions.



The learning outcomes for Statistics are...

### ✓ **Turning Data into Information in life**

- Use descriptive statistical techniques to organize, summarize and present data with graphical and numerical measures.

### ✓ **Understanding Uncertainty in life**

- Apply probability theory and distribution models to calculate probabilities of real-world events.

### ✓ **Making Decisions from Data in life**

- Conduct inferential statistical analysis and testing to draw conclusions from data.

# Introduction to Statistics

## Ambiguous or misleading comparisons

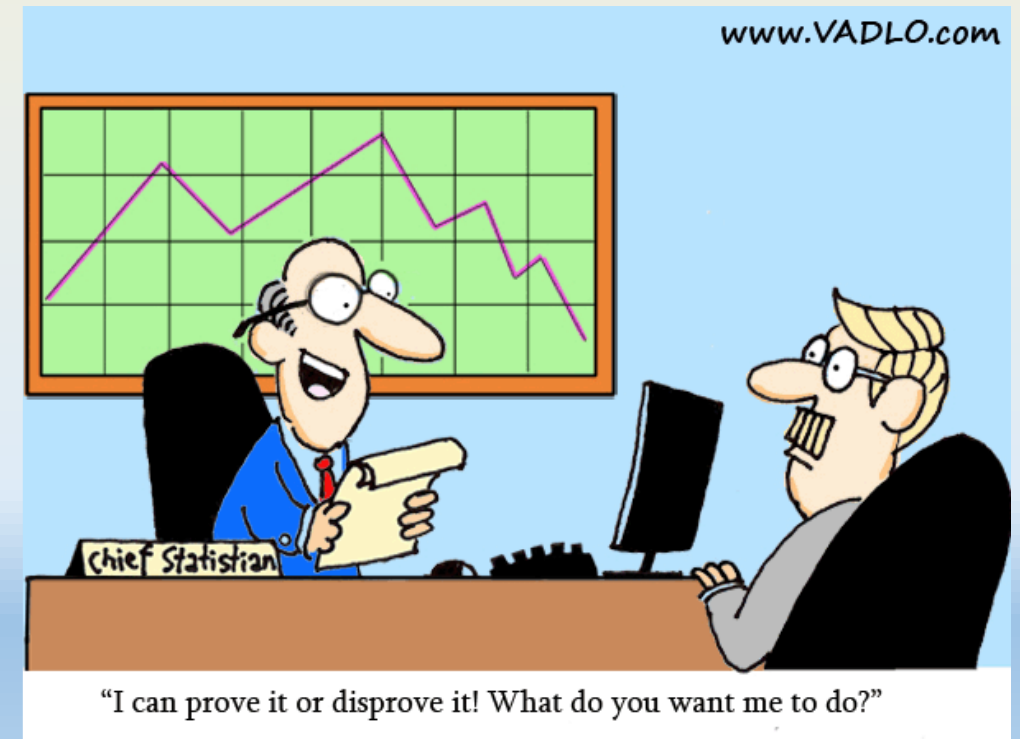
➤ Bank A: “Our interest rates are 1% lower”

- Ambiguity 1: Lower than which Bank?
- Ambiguity 2: If the Bank B offers 2% interest rates, does Bank A offer **1% or 1.98%** ?



➤ Misleading Tweets (2019)

- " *President Trump's approval rating among Latinos going (up) to 50%,* " Trump tweeted.
- National polling results for only 153 Latino voters (margin of error is  $\pm 9.9\%$ ):





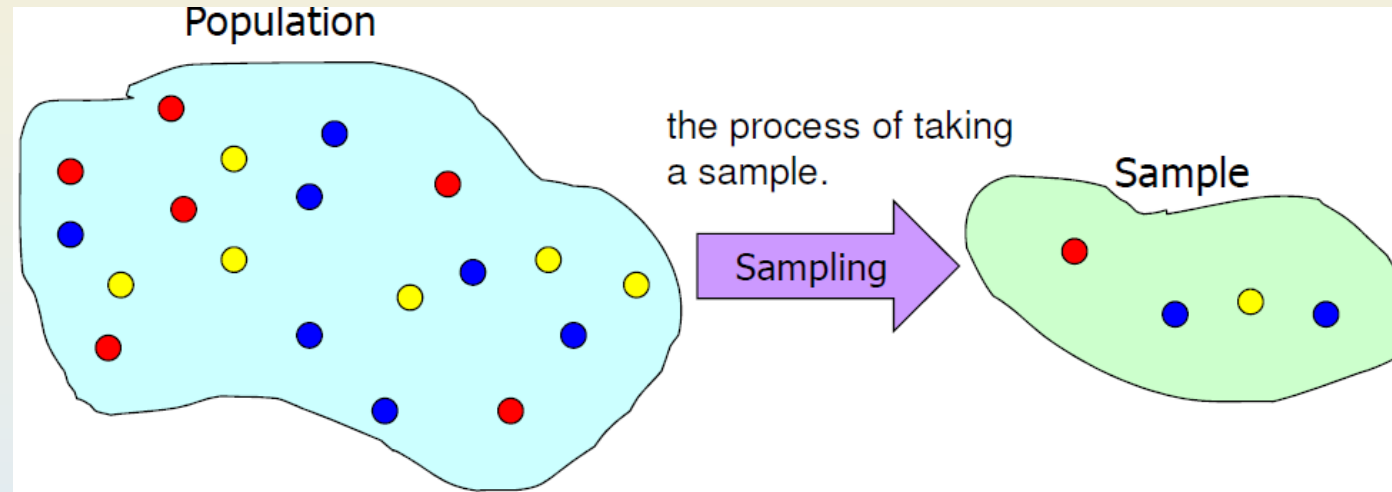
# DESCRIPTIVE STATISTICS

## DATA AND SAMPLES

# Data and Samples

## Population versus Sample

To be **accurate**, we need to conduct census to collect all the data. But to be **practical**, sampling is commonly done instead.



- Population

- Census – whole population which is usually large, is being measured, which can be costly and may be **impractical/impossible**.

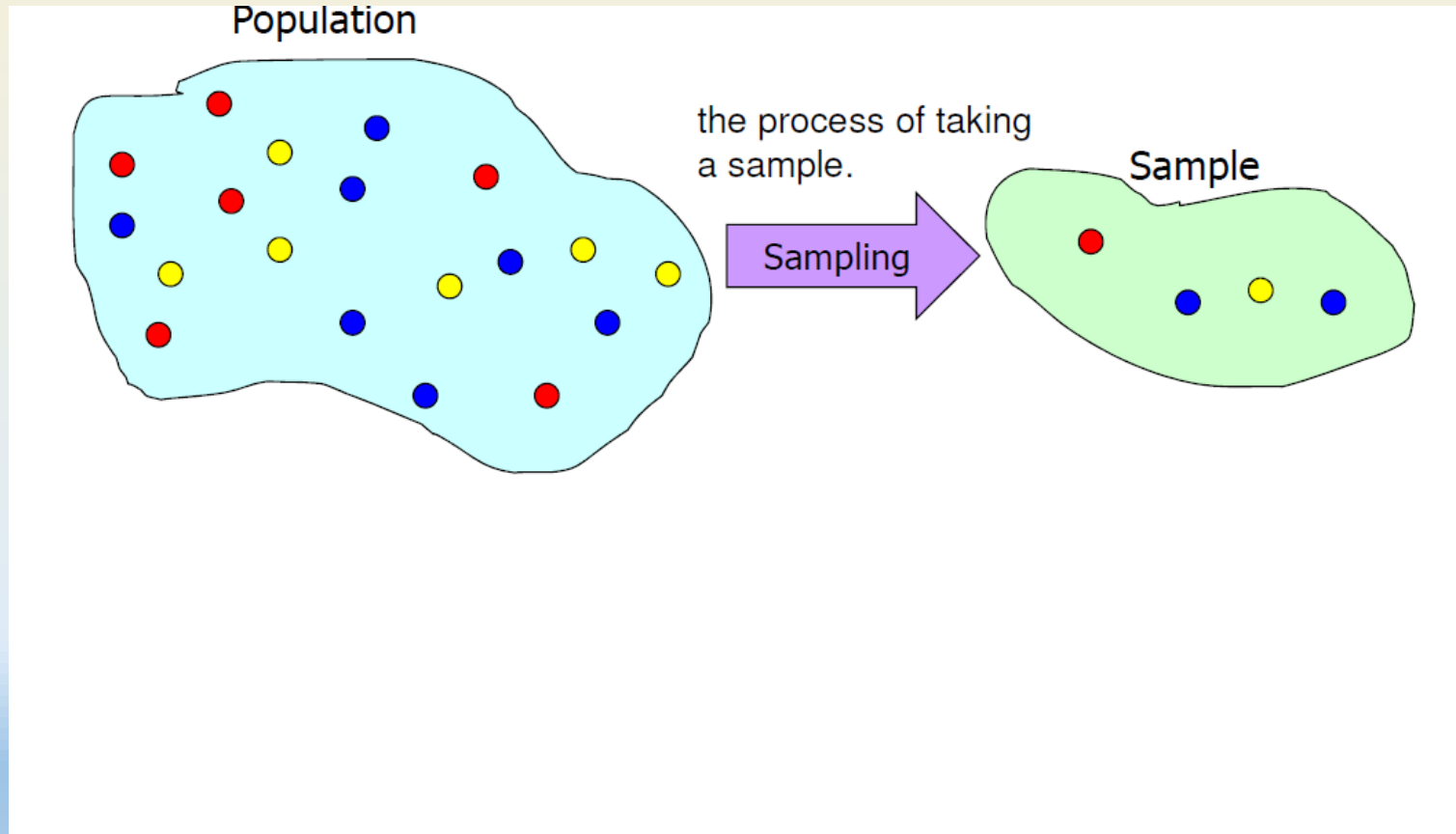
- Sample

- Sampling – a sample, which is a **small subset** of the population is measured (which is then used to **infer** the population).

# Data and Samples

## Population versus Sample

The data collected from the population or sample are then used to compute the **population parameter** or **sample statistic** respectively.



Important to  
know what  
the symbols  
represent

# DESCRIPTIVE STATISTICS

## TYPES OF DATA AND DATA PRESENTATION

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Types of Data

- In Statistics, it is important to differentiate data/variables as **qualitative** (categorical or non-numeric) or **quantitative** (numeric) because they are treated differently.

### Data

```
graph TD; Data[Data] --- Quant[Quantitative (numeric)]; Data --- Qual[Qualitative (Categorical)];
```

Expressed numerically.  
Can be used in calculations

### Quantitative (numeric)

scale for measurement has numerical values that represent different magnitudes of the variable

Describe a characteristic or quality of variable

### Qualitative (Categorical )

scale for measurement is a set of categories

### Quantitative/Numerical variable

(scale for measurement is numerical values that differ in magnitude)

#### **Examples:**

- Age, height, weight, BMI =  $\text{weight}(\text{kg}) / [\text{height}(\text{m})]^2$
- GPA
- Time spent on Internet yesterday
- Reaction time to a stimulus

### Qualitative/Categorical variable

(scale for measurement is a set of categories )

#### **Examples:**

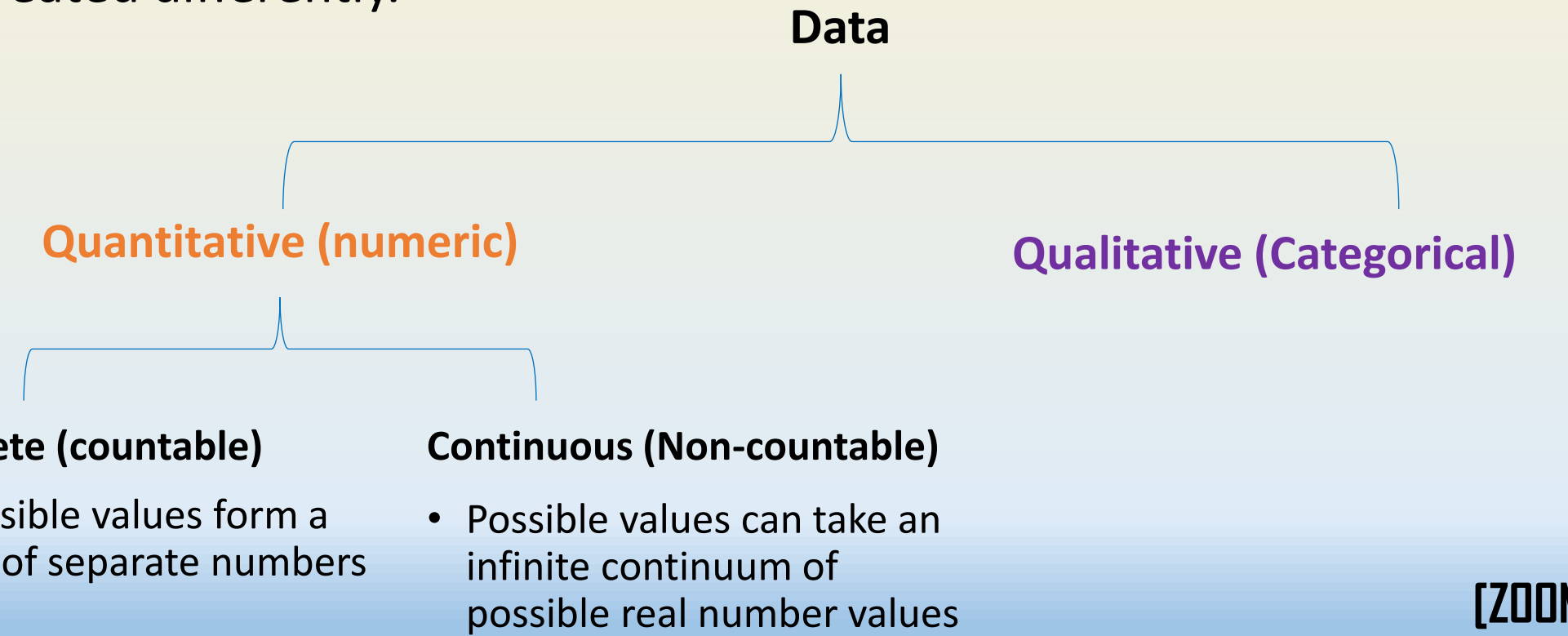
- Racial-ethnic group (Asian, White, Black, Latino)
- Political party identification (Labour, Conservative, Liberal-democrats)
- Vegetarian? (yes, no)
- Mental health evaluation (well, mild symptom formation, moderate symptom formation, impaired)
- Happiness (very happy, pretty happy, not too happy)

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Types of Data

- In Statistics, it is important to differentiate data/variables as **qualitative** (categorical or non-numeric) or **quantitative** (numeric) because they are treated differently.

### Data



```
graph TD; Data --> Quantitative["Quantitative (numeric)"]; Data --> Qualitative["Qualitative (Categorical)"]; Quantitative --> Discrete["Discrete (countable)"]; Quantitative --> Continuous["Continuous (Non-countable)"];
```

#### Quantitative (numeric)

#### Qualitative (Categorical)

##### Discrete (countable)

- Possible values form a set of separate numbers

##### Continuous (Non-countable)

- Possible values can take an infinite continuum of possible real number values

[ZOOM POLL]



# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Types of Data

**Which of the following is an example of a Qualitative or Categorical variable (data)?**

- Height in inches
- Zip code
- Years of schooling completed
- Annual income in dollars

**[ZOOM POLL]**

**Which of the following is an example of a Quantitative or Numerical variable (data)?**

- Religious affiliation
- University major (degree)
- Number of life-events in the past year
- High school graduate or not

**Which of the following is NOT an example of a Continuous variable (data)?**

- Annual income
- Number of family members
- Finish time for a marathon
- Distance travelled to work

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Representing Categorical Data

- How would you represent these data?  
(a set of colored M&Ms)
- To obtain information from data, **qualitative (categorical)** data are often summarized in a table using **frequency** or **relative frequency**.

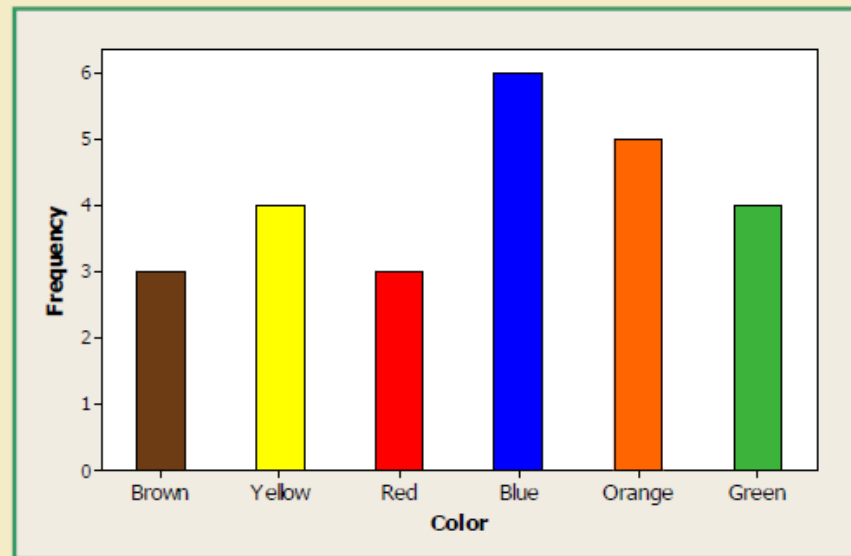
Data: 

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

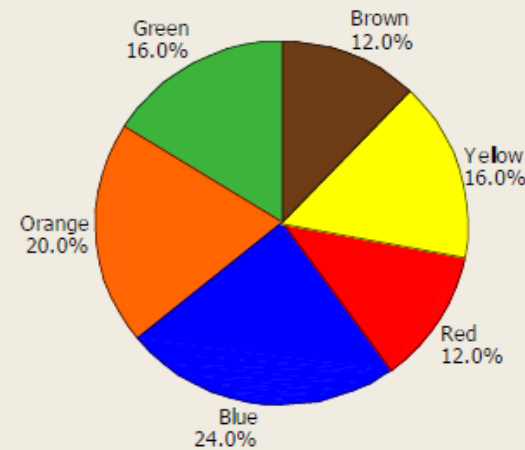
## Representing Categorical Data

- Graphically, qualitative (categorical) data are commonly presented using bar chart or pie chart.

Bar chart:



Pie chart:



# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Representing Categorical Data

- The collection of all categories (classes) and the corresponding relative frequencies is called the **relative frequency distribution** of the variable.

**Definition:** Population proportion or relative frequency is defined as:

$$p_i = \frac{f_i}{N}$$

Similarly, sample proportion:

$$\hat{p}_i = \frac{f_i}{n}$$

where  $f_i$  = frequency

$N = \sum f_i$  (all data)

$n$  = a subset of  $N$

8

| Color  | Relative Frequency |
|--------|--------------------|
| Red    | 0.12               |
| Blue   | 0.24               |
| Green  | 0.16               |
| Orange | 0.20               |
| Brown  | 0.12               |
| Yellow | 0.16               |

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Representing Quantitative Data

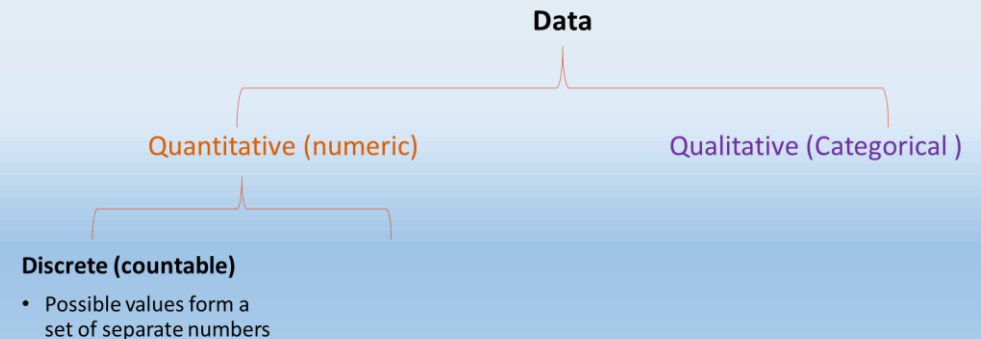
- Numeric data can be identified as **frequency distribution** as well.

Data:

| Daily Number of Internet System Crashes |   |   |   |   |   |   |   |   |   |
|-----------------------------------------|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| 1                                       | 3 | 1 | 1 | 0 | 1 | 0 | 1 | 1 | 0 |
| 2                                       | 2 | 0 | 0 | 0 | 1 | 2 | 1 | 2 | 0 |
| 0                                       | 1 | 6 | 4 | 3 | 3 | 1 | 2 | 4 | 0 |

Frequency distribution:

| Value $x$ | Frequency | Relative Frequency |
|-----------|-----------|--------------------|
| 0         | 9         | .300               |
| 1         | 10        | .333               |
| 2         | 5         | .167               |
| 3         | 3         | .100               |
| 4         | 2         | .067               |
| 5         | 0         | .000               |
| 6         | 1         | .033               |
| Total     | 30        | 1.000              |



# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Representing Quantitative Data

- Numeric data can be identified as **frequency distribution** as well.

Data:

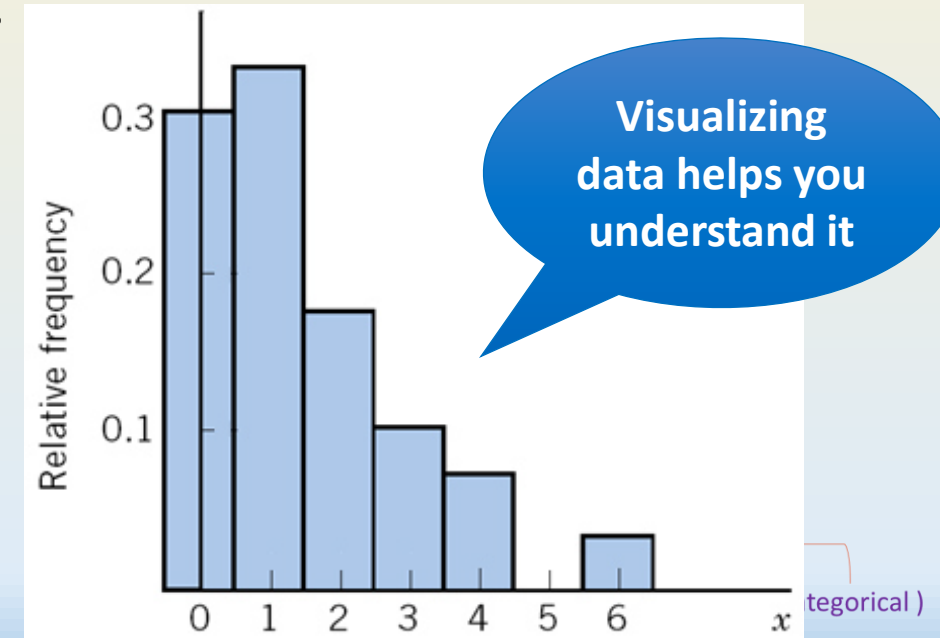
Daily Number of Internet System Crashes

|   |   |   |   |   |   |   |   |   |   |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| 1 | 3 | 1 | 1 | 0 | 1 | 0 | 1 | 1 | 0 |
| 2 | 2 | 0 | 0 | 0 | 1 | 2 | 1 | 2 | 0 |
| 0 | 1 | 6 | 4 | 3 | 3 | 1 | 2 | 4 | 0 |

Frequency distribution:

| Value $x$ | Frequency | Relative Frequency |
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| 0         | 9         | .300               |
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| 3         | 3         | .100               |
| 4         | 2         | .067               |
| 5         | 0         | .000               |
| 6         | 1         | .033               |
| Total     | 30        | 1.000              |

However, **quantitative data** are commonly presented graphically using **histograms** instead.



Discrete (countable)

- Possible values form a set of separate numbers

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Representing Large or Continuous Quantitative Data

- For **large dataset** and/or **quantitative continuous data**, **classes (covering continuous non-overlapping range of values)** are commonly used to group data together.

Data: A Sample of Payment Times (in Days) for 65 Randomly Selected Invoices

|    |    |    |    |    |    |    |    |    |    |    |
|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|
| 22 | 29 | 16 | 15 | 18 | 17 | 12 | 13 | 17 | 16 | 15 |
| 19 | 17 | 10 | 21 | 15 | 14 | 17 | 18 | 12 | 20 | 14 |
| 16 | 15 | 16 | 20 | 22 | 14 | 25 | 19 | 23 | 15 | 19 |
| 18 | 23 | 22 | 16 | 16 | 19 | 13 | 18 | 24 | 24 | 26 |
| 13 | 18 | 17 | 15 | 24 | 15 | 17 | 14 | 18 | 17 | 21 |
| 16 | 21 | 25 | 19 | 20 | 27 | 16 | 17 | 16 | 21 |    |

Data

Quantitative (Numerical)

Qualitative (Categorical)

Continuous (Non-countable)

Continuous values can take an infinite continuum of possible number values

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Representing Large or Continuous Quantitative Data

- For **large dataset** and/or **quantitative continuous data**, classes (covering continuous non-overlapping range of values) are commonly used to group data together.

**Data:** A Sample of Payment Times (in Days) for 65 Randomly Selected Invoices

|    |    |    |    |    |    |    |    |    |    |    |
|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|
| 22 | 29 | 16 | 15 | 18 | 17 | 12 | 13 | 17 | 16 | 15 |
| 19 | 17 | 10 | 21 | 15 | 14 | 17 | 18 | 12 | 20 | 14 |
| 16 | 15 | 16 | 20 | 22 | 14 | 25 | 19 | 23 | 15 | 19 |
| 18 | 23 | 22 | 16 | 16 | 19 | 13 | 18 | 24 | 24 | 26 |
| 13 | 18 | 17 | 15 | 24 | 15 | 17 | 14 | 18 | 17 | 21 |
| 16 | 21 | 25 | 19 | 20 | 27 | 16 | 17 | 16 | 21 |    |

10 to < 13  
(interval  
includes 10  
but not 13)

**Data**

Quantitative (Numerical)

Qualitative (Categorical)

**Continuous (Non-countable)**

Continuous values can take an infinite continuum of possible number values



# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Representing Large or Continuous Quantitative Data

- For **large dataset** and/or **quantitative continuous data**, classes (covering continuous non-overlapping range of values) are commonly used to group data together.

**Data:** A Sample of Payment Times (in Days) for 65 Randomly Selected Invoices

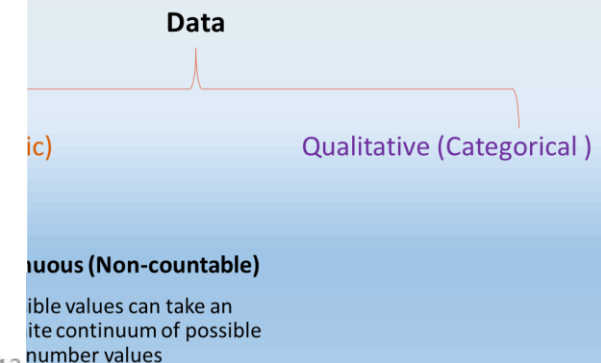
|    |    |    |    |    |    |    |    |    |    |    |
|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|----|
| 22 | 29 | 16 | 15 | 18 | 17 | 12 | 13 | 17 | 16 | 15 |
| 19 | 17 | 10 | 21 | 15 | 14 | 17 | 18 | 12 | 20 | 14 |
| 16 | 15 | 16 | 20 | 22 | 14 | 25 | 19 | 23 | 15 | 19 |
| 18 | 23 | 22 | 16 | 16 | 19 | 13 | 18 | 24 | 24 | 26 |
| 13 | 18 | 17 | 15 | 24 | 15 | 17 | 14 | 18 | 17 | 21 |
| 16 | 21 | 25 | 19 | 20 | 27 | 16 | 17 | 16 | 21 |    |

Frequency  
table:

| Class      |
|------------|
| 10 to < 13 |
| 13 to < 16 |
| 16 to < 19 |
| 19 to < 22 |
| 22 to < 25 |
| 25 to < 28 |
| 28 to < 31 |

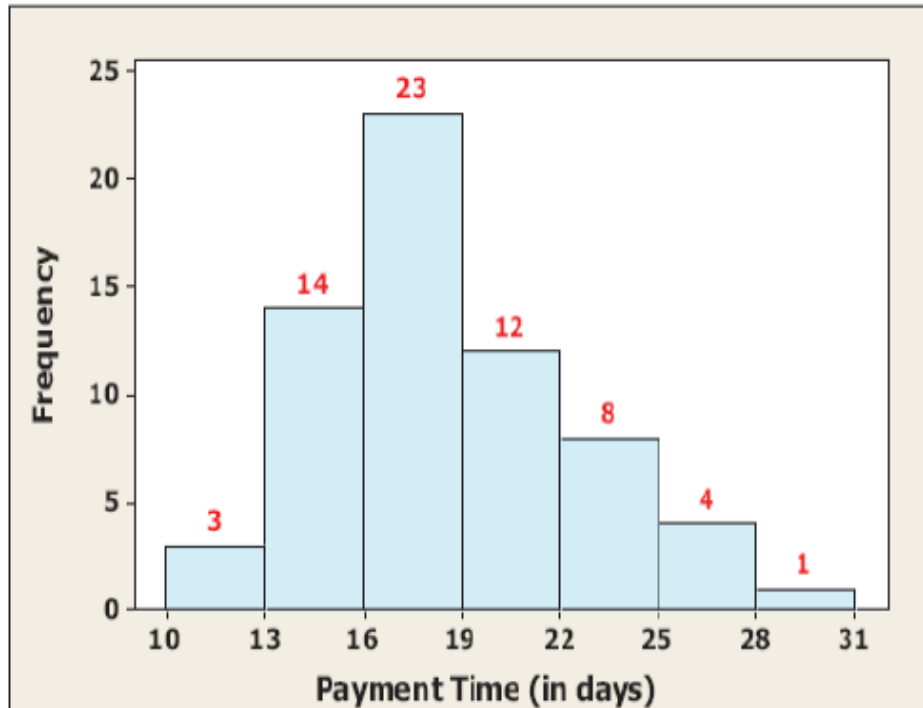
10 to < 13  
(interval  
includes 10  
but not 13)

Note: Use enough classes (usually 5-14) to show variation in data, but not too many classes that many contain only a few data items.



# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Data Presentation: Histograms

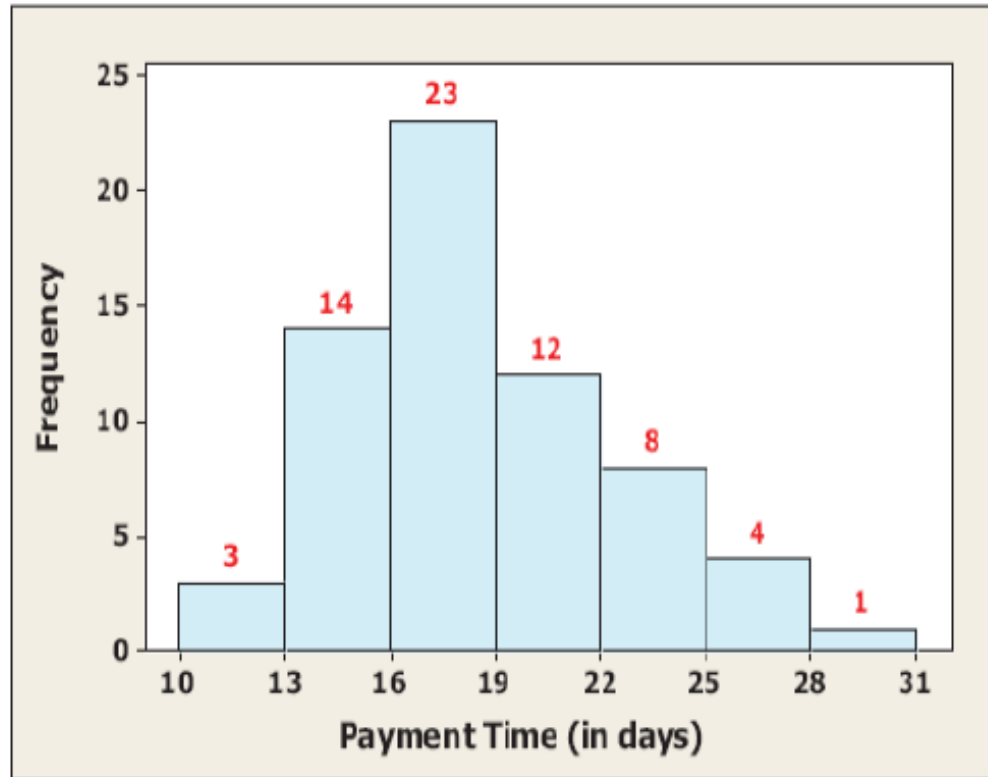


Frequency  
table:

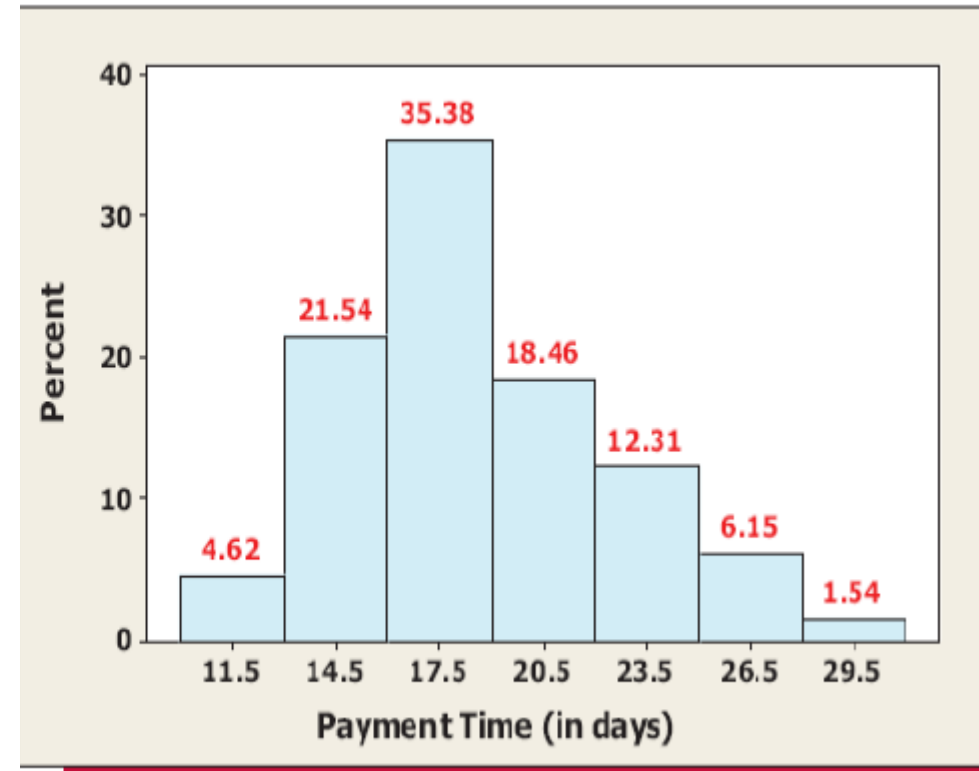
| Class      | All 65 Tally Marks | Frequency |
|------------|--------------------|-----------|
| 10 to < 13 | ///                | 3         |
| 13 to < 16 | /// //             | 14        |
| 16 to < 19 | /// // // //       | 23        |
| 19 to < 22 | /// // //          | 12        |
| 22 to < 25 | /// //             | 8         |
| 25 to < 28 | ///                | 4         |
| 28 to < 31 | /                  | 1         |

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Data Presentation: Histograms



(a)



(b)

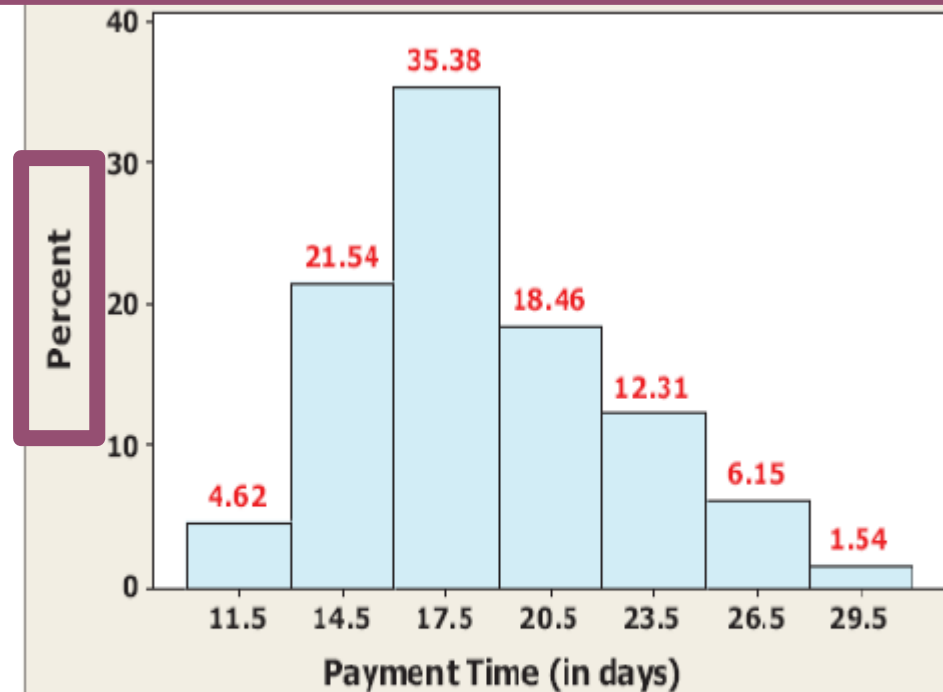
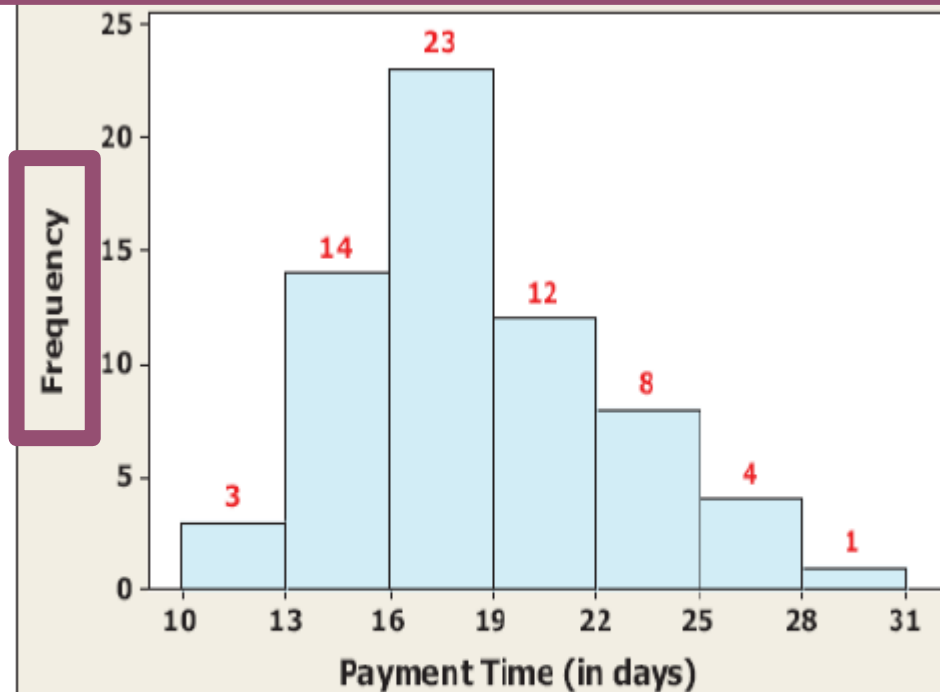
These two diagrams represent same data, spot the differences

# Spot the Difference

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Data Presentation: Histograms

Graphically, quantitative continuous data or grouped data are also commonly presented using histograms

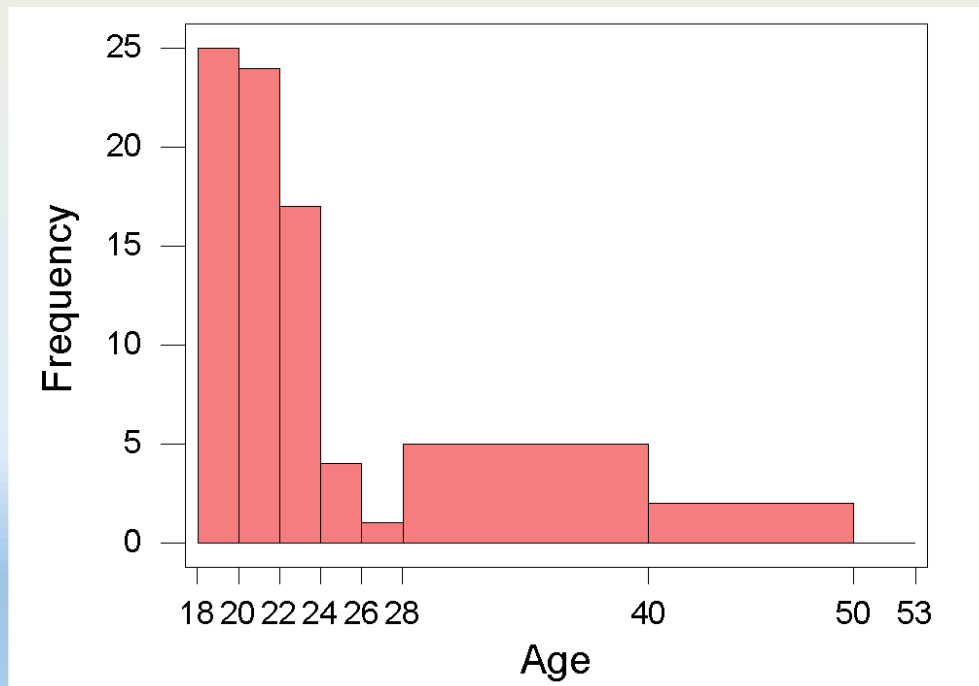


Note that there is **no gap** between the rectangles in the **histogram** because the classes cover continuous non-overlapping range.

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Data Presentation: Histograms with Unequal Classes

- Sometimes, it may be desirable to group data into **unequal class** width.
- However, for **unequal class** width, the corresponding histogram can be misleading if it is simply drawn using frequency or relative frequency.
- E.g. the ages of 79 undergraduate students in a university

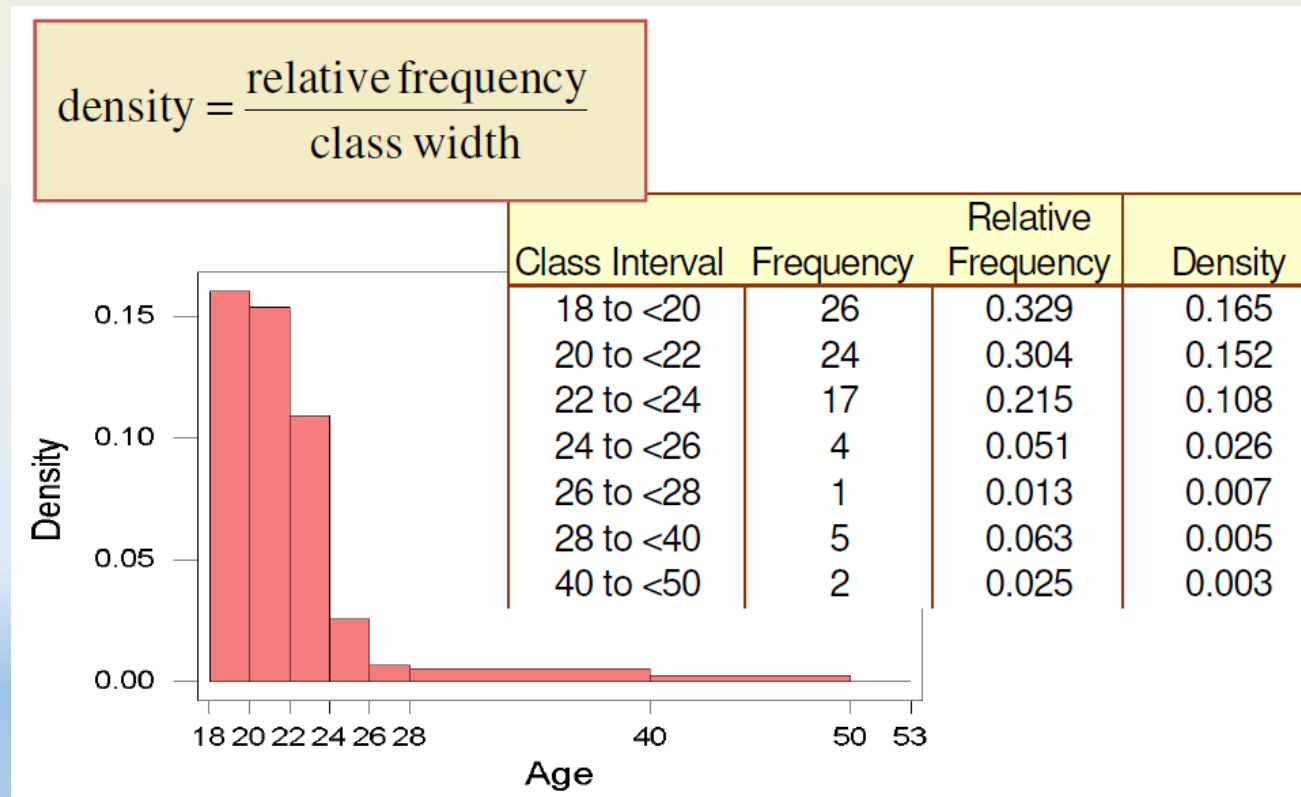


| Class Interval | Frequency | Relative Frequency |
|----------------|-----------|--------------------|
| 18 to <20      | 26        | 0.329              |
| 20 to <22      | 24        | 0.304              |
| 22 to <24      | 17        | 0.215              |
| 24 to <26      | 4         | 0.051              |
| 26 to <28      | 1         | 0.013              |
| 28 to <40      | 5         | 0.063              |
| 40 to <50      | 2         | 0.025              |

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Data Presentation: Histograms with Unequal Classes

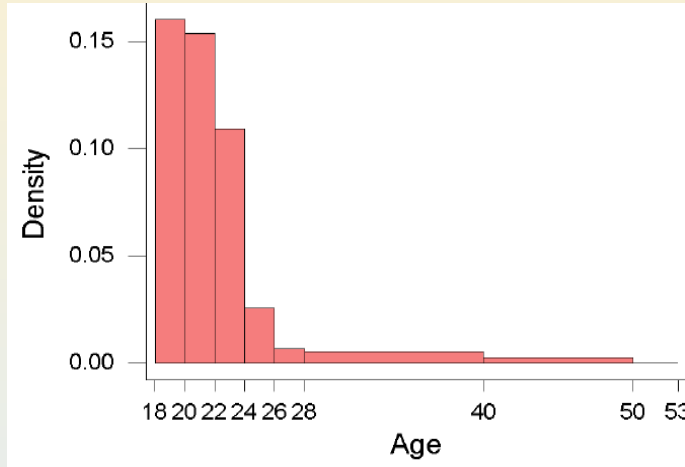
- E.g. the ages of 79 undergraduate students in a university
- To avoid misinterpretation, histogram needs to be **drawn using density** and not frequency, when presenting continuous data or grouped data with **unequal class width**.



# Types of Data and Data Presentation

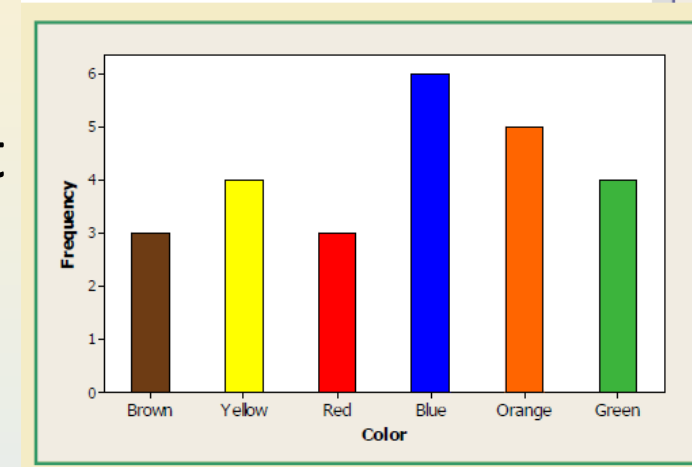
## Data Presentation: Histograms with Unequal Classes

### (density) Histogram



- Quantitative
- Bars can not be reordered
- Bar width represents bins, classes or intervals of values – can be different in length
- No gaps (if there are gaps, they are value zero)
- Area of the bar denotes the frequency, not height
- Histogram show distributions

### Bar chart



- Categorical
- Bars can be reordered
- Bar width is the same, the width has no meaning
- There are gaps (no value to gaps, just space)
- The height of the bar is the frequency, the width has no meaning
- Bar chart compare variables

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Bivariate data

- What if we wish to investigate the relationship between **two variables** and summarize data?
  - e.g. quality rating and meal price for 300 restaurants:
    - What can we make of such data?
    - Is an expensive meal always excellent?
    - How much is an expensive meal?
    - Are there any excellent cheap meals?

| Restaurant | variable 1     | variable 2      |
|------------|----------------|-----------------|
|            | Quality Rating | Meal Price (\$) |
| 1          | Good           | 18              |
| 2          | Very Good      | 22              |
| 3          | Good           | 28              |
| 4          | Excellent      | 38              |
| 5          | Very Good      | 33              |
| 6          | Good           | 28              |
| 7          | Very Good      | 19              |
| 8          | Very Good      | 11              |
| 9          | Very Good      | 23              |
| 10         | Good           | 13              |
| .          | .              | .               |
| .          | .              | .               |
| .          | .              | .               |



# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Bivariate data

Crosstabulation (or crosstab) is a method for summarizing data for two variables in a table called a *contingency table*.

| Restaurant | variable 1     | variable 2      |
|------------|----------------|-----------------|
|            | Quality Rating | Meal Price (\$) |
| 1          | Good           | 18              |
| 2          | Very Good      | 22              |
| 3          | Good           | 28              |
| 4          | Excellent      | 38              |
| 5          | Very Good      | 33              |
| 6          | Good           | 28              |
| 7          | Very Good      | 19              |
| 8          | Very Good      | 11              |
| 9          | Very Good      | 23              |
|            |                | 13              |
|            |                | .               |
|            |                | .               |
|            |                | .               |

| Quality Rating | Meal Price |         |         |         | Total |
|----------------|------------|---------|---------|---------|-------|
|                | \$10–19    | \$20–29 | \$30–39 | \$40–49 |       |

## Crosstabulation using Contingency Tables

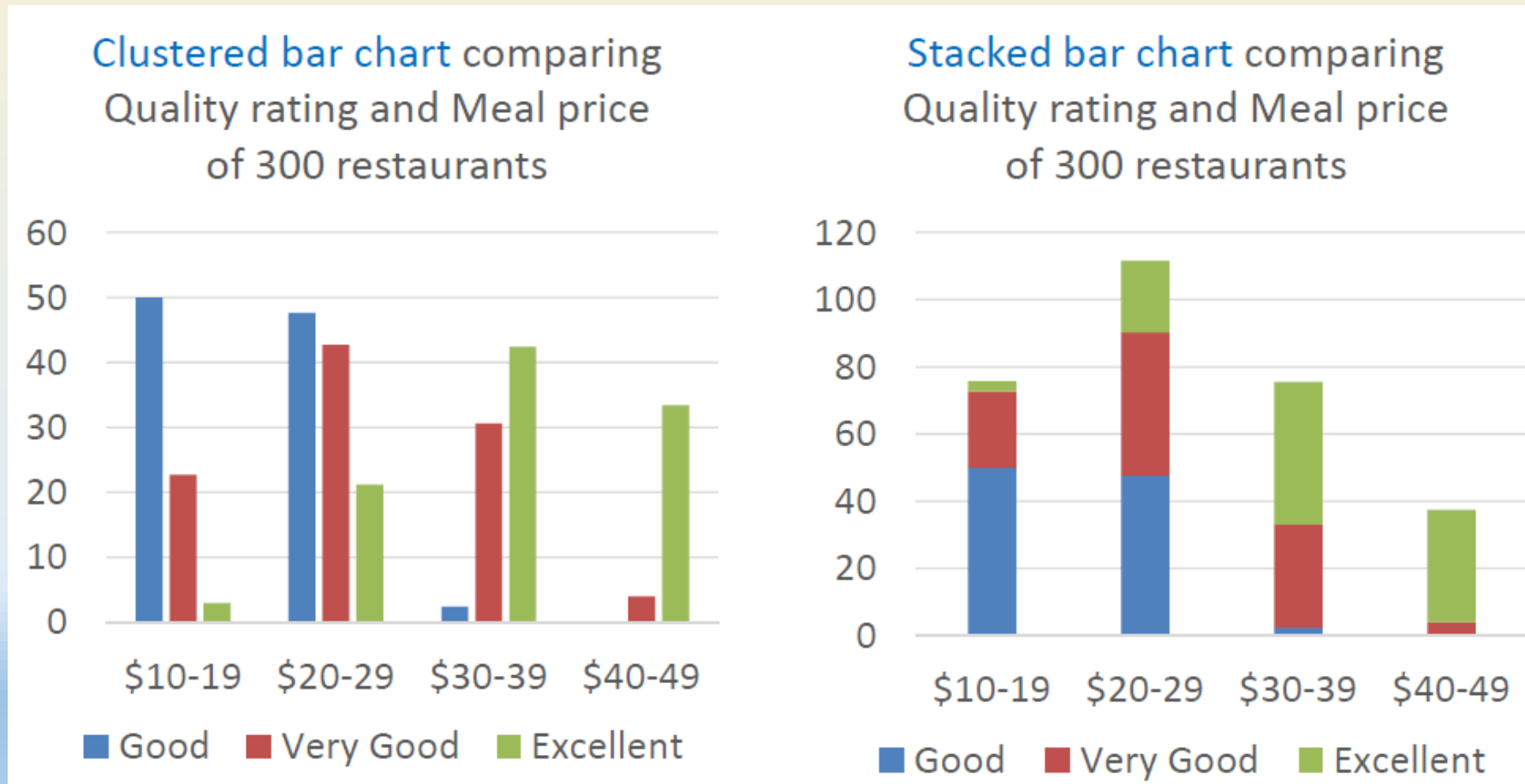
| Meal Price     |         |         |         |         |       |
|----------------|---------|---------|---------|---------|-------|
| Quality Rating | \$10–19 | \$20–29 | \$30–39 | \$40–49 | Total |
| Good           | 42      | 40      | 2       | 0       | 84    |
| Very Good      | 34      | 64      | 46      | 6       | 150   |
| Excellent      | 2       | 14      | 28      | 22      | 66    |
| Total          | 78      | 118     | 76      | 28      | 300   |

## MATH 2

# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Crosstabulation using Clustered/Stacked bar chart

- For easier comparison, cross-tabulation may be presented graphically using clustered bar chart or stacked bar chart.



# Types of Data and Data Presentation

## Summarizing Quantitative Data

- *Imagine you were living in the olden days when Statistics was being developed and you were asked to propose a **SINGLE number** to represent a data set, what would you propose?*
- *...enter **Measure of Location!***

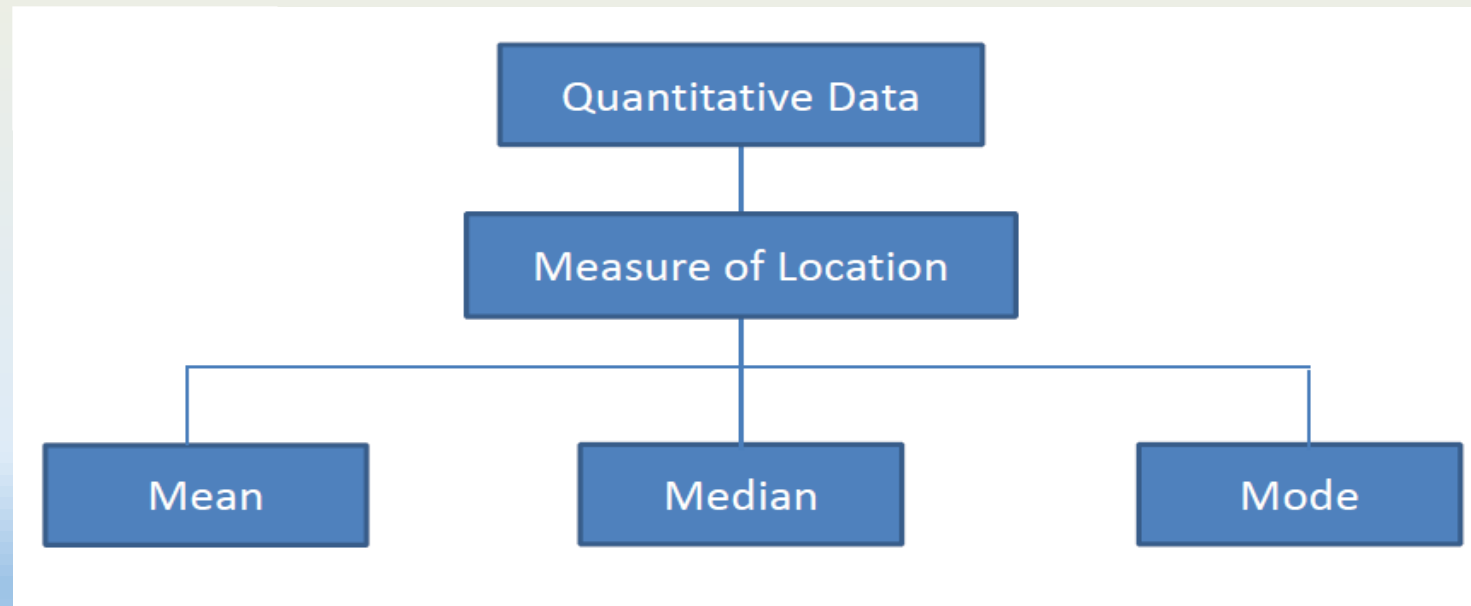
# DESCRIPTIVE STATISTICS

## MEASURE OF LOCATION

# Measure of Location

## Summarizing Quantitative Data

- Numerical measures can also be used to **summarize data**. An example is the *measure of location*.
- Mathematicians have defined **3 measures of location** that are widely used:



# Measure of Location

## Mean

- Mean is defined as the numerical average, calculated as the sum of the data values divided by the number of values.

**Definition:** Population mean, denoted as  $\mu$ , is defined as:

$$\mu = \frac{x_1 + x_2 + \dots + x_N}{N} = \frac{\sum x_i}{N}$$

where  $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_N$  are ALL the  $N$  data in the population.

Similarly, sample mean, denoted as  $\bar{x}$ , is defined as:

$$\bar{x} = \frac{x_1 + x_2 + \dots + x_n}{n} = \frac{\sum x_i}{n}$$

where  $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$  is a subset of  $n < N$  data in the population.

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# Measure of Location

## Mean: Example

**Example:** The numbers of stray dogs captured and turned in to a town animal shelter on the last 20 days were:

|   |   |   |   |   |   |   |   |   |   |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| 4 | 6 | 8 | 4 | 2 | 6 | 4 | 3 | 4 | 9 |
| 5 | 8 | 5 | 3 | 5 | 7 | 6 | 3 | 8 | 6 |

Find the mean.

*(Mean for a day that is.)*



# Measure of Location

## Mean: Example

**Example:** The numbers of stray dogs captured and turned in to a town animal shelter on the last 20 days were:

4 6 8 4 2 6 4 3 4 9  
5 8 5 3 5 7 6 3 8 6

Find the mean.

**Solution:**

| Data $x_i$ | Frequency $f_i$ |
|------------|-----------------|
| 2          | 1               |
| 3          | 3               |
| 4          | 4               |
| 5          | 3               |
| 6          | 4               |
| 7          | 1               |
| 8          | 3               |
| 9          | 1               |

$$= \frac{2 \times 1 + 3 \times 3 + 4 \times 4 + \dots + 8 \times 3 + 9 \times 1}{20}$$

$$= \frac{106}{20} = 5.3$$

$$\bar{x} = \frac{\sum x_i f_i}{n}$$

# Measure of Location

## Mean: Grouped Data Example

How would you approach calculating the mean for grouped data?

| Age        | Frequency $f_i$ |
|------------|-----------------|
| 25 to < 33 | 5               |
| 33 to < 41 | 14              |
| 41 to < 49 | 13              |
| 49 to < 57 | 9               |
| 57 to < 65 | 7               |
| 65 to < 73 | 2               |

# Measure of Location

## Mean: Grouped Data Example

| Age        | Class Mark $x_i$   | Frequency $f_i$ |
|------------|--------------------|-----------------|
| 25 to < 33 | $(25 + 33)/2 = 29$ | 5               |
| 33 to < 41 | 37                 | 14              |
| 41 to < 49 | 45                 | 13              |
| 49 to < 57 | 53                 | 9               |
| 57 to < 65 | 61                 | 7               |
| 65 to < 73 | 69                 | 2               |

*(Get the average of each Age category.)*

$$\begin{aligned}\bar{x} &= \frac{\sum x_i f_i}{n} \\ &= \frac{29 \times 5 + 37 \times 14 + \dots + 69 \times 2}{50} = 45.8\end{aligned}$$

# Measure of Location

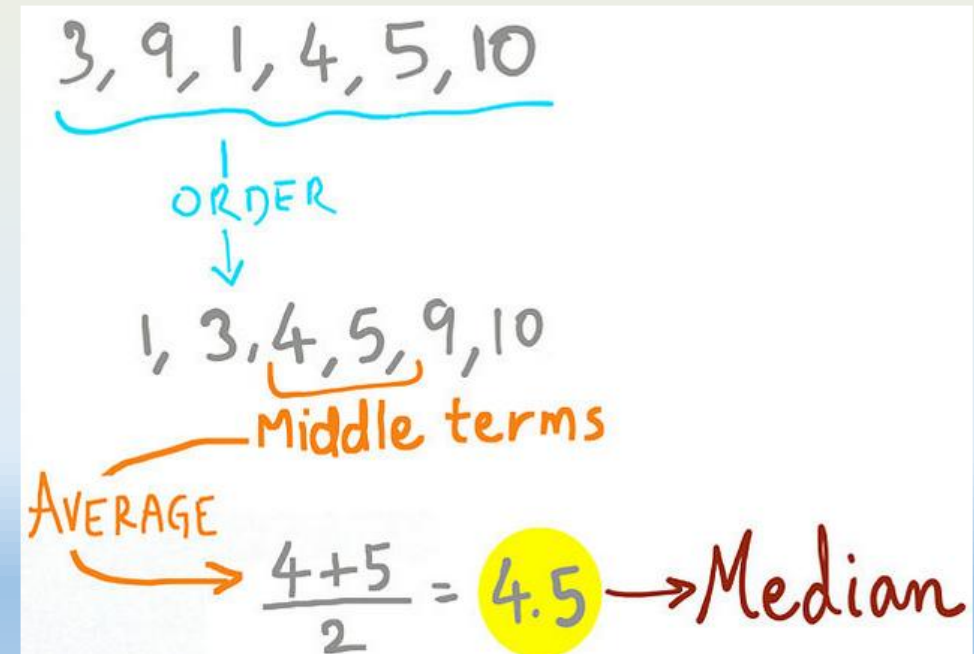
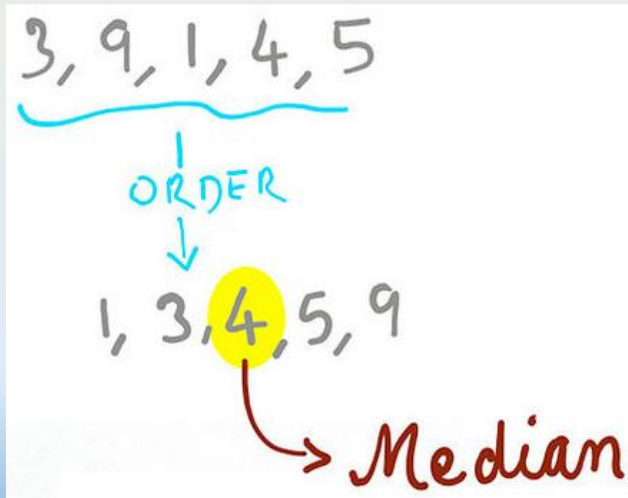
## Median

- Median is defined as the middle data value when the dataset has been ordered from the smallest to largest.
- What is the median of this data? `3, 9, 1, 4, 5`

# Measure of Location

## Median: Example

- Median is defined as the middle data value when the dataset has been ordered from the smallest to largest.
- What is the median of this data?



# Measure of Location

## Median: Grouped Data Example

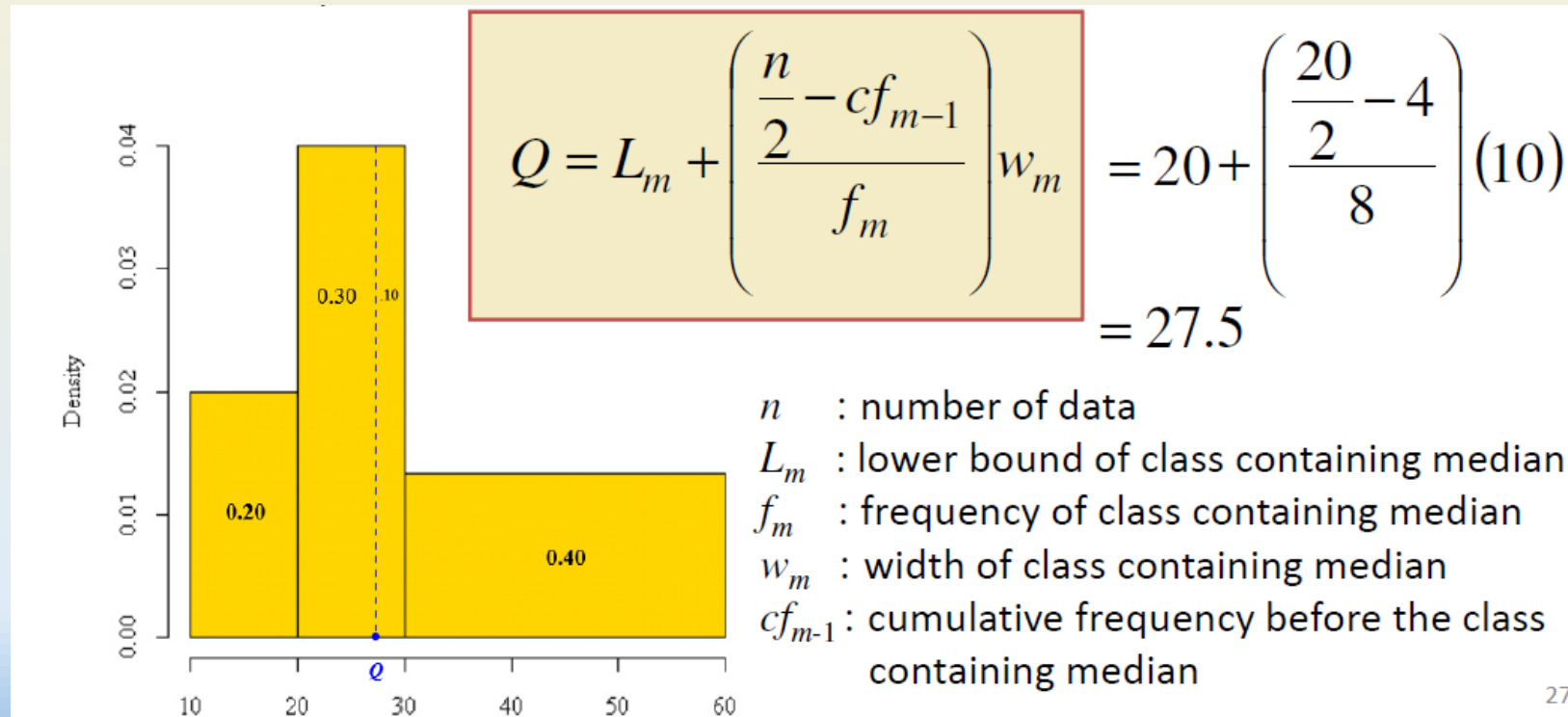
- For grouped data, **median  $Q$**  is an **interpolated value within the class** containing the median:

| Class Interval | Frequency $f_i$ | Relative Frequency $\frac{f_i}{n}$ | Density<br>(Rel Freq $\div$ Class Width) |
|----------------|-----------------|------------------------------------|------------------------------------------|
| [10, 20)       | 4               | 0.20                               | 0.02                                     |
| [20, 30)       | 8               | 0.40                               | 0.04                                     |
| [30, 60)       | 8               | 0.40                               | 0.013                                    |

# Measure of Location

## Median: Grouped Data Example

- Median  $Q$  is an interpolated value within the class containing the median computed as follows:



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| Class Interval | Frequency $f_i$ | Relative Frequency $\frac{f_i}{n}$ | Density<br>(Rel Freq $\div$ Class Width) |
|----------------|-----------------|------------------------------------|------------------------------------------|
| [10, 20)       | 4               | 0.20                               | 0.02                                     |
| [20, 30)       | 8               | 0.40                               | 0.04                                     |
| [30, 60)       | 8               | 0.40                               | 0.013                                    |

# Measure of Location

## Mode

- Mode is defined as the data value that has the **highest frequency**.
- What is the mode of the following data?

4, 8, 1, 3, 4, 3, 3, 2, 4, 4

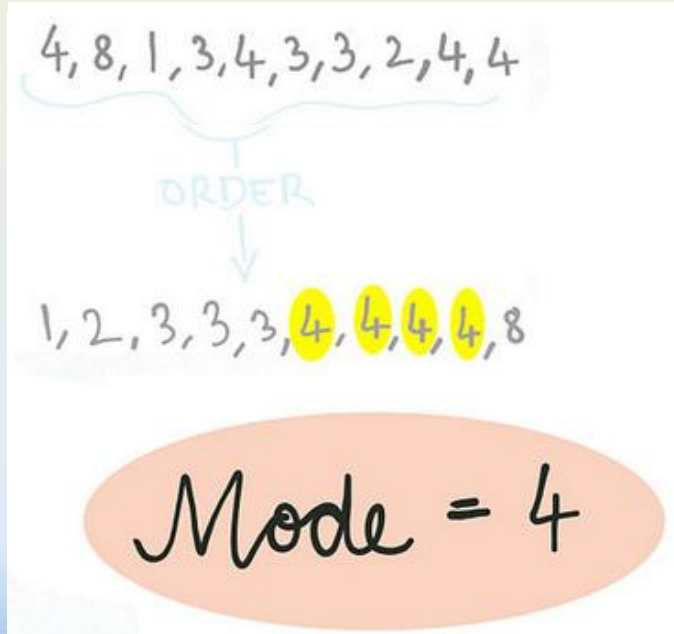


# Measure of Location

## Mode: Example

- Mode is defined as the data value that has the **highest frequency**.

- For individual data



For grouped data:

| Number of Cappuccinos | Freq |
|-----------------------|------|
| 0 - 3                 | 2    |
| 4 - 7                 | 3    |
| 8 - 11                | 8    |
| 12 - 15               | 3    |
| 16 - 19               | 2    |

The **class** which has the **highest frequency** is called the **modal class**; i.e. 8 - 11

[ZOOM POLL]

Note: **Mode** is the only measure of location that conceptually can also be applied to **qualitative data**.

# Measure of Location

## Mode: Example

What is the Mean of the following numbers: 3, 4, 8, 5, 2, 9, 11?

[ZOOM POLL]

- 4
- 5
- 6
- 7

What is the Median of the following numbers: 5, 9, 8, 10, 13, 4, 6?

- 6
- 7
- 8
- 9

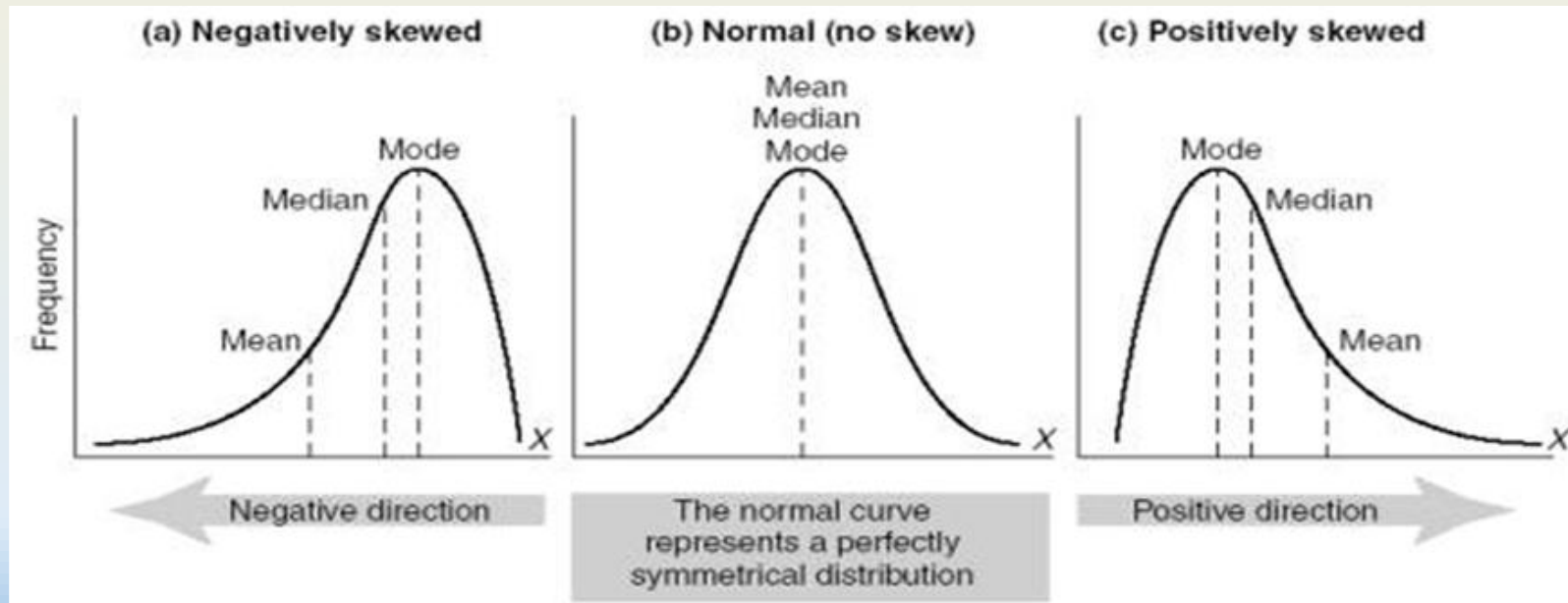
What is the Mode of the following numbers: 2, 3, 5, 3, 6, 7, 3, 2, 9, 12?

- 10
- 2
- 3
- 7

# Measure of Location

## Understanding the data

- Based on **mean**, **median** and **mode**, dataset may be classified as being **negatively skewed**, **symmetrical**, or **positively skewed**; and **unimodal** or **bimodal**.

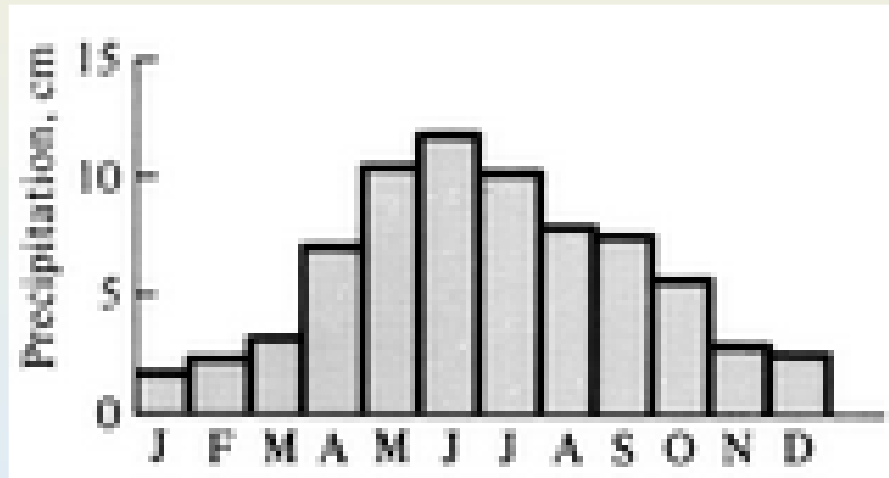


# Measure of Location

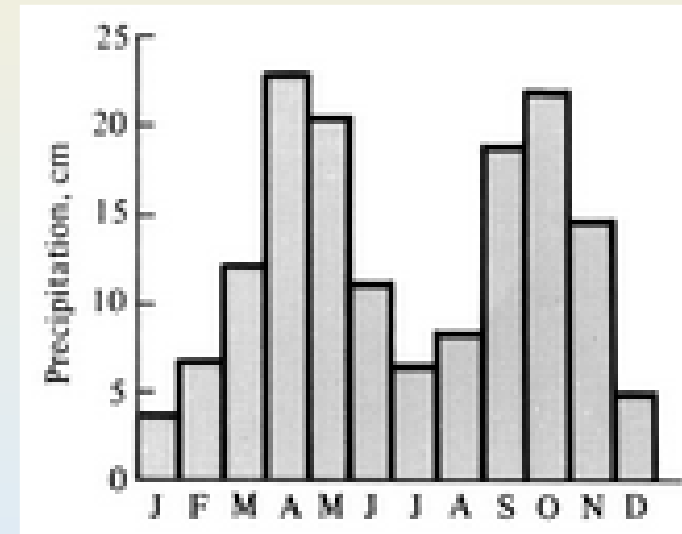
## Understanding the data

- Based on **mean**, **median** and **mode**, dataset may be classified as being **negatively skewed**, **symmetrical**, or **positively skewed**; and **unimodal** or **bimodal**.

Unimodal distribution



Bimodal distribution



The terms specifically refer to uni/bi/trimodal as they relate to the **number of modes**.

However, a *bi* or *trimodal distribution* could have 2 or 3 peaks with different heights.

[You'd have to consider whether the peaks were prominent or not, and this is beyond the scope of this module.]

# Measure of Location

## Understanding the data: Discussion of the mean

- **Example:** Seven houses were sold last week in district X.
- Here are the selling prices : \$94,900, \$97,900, \$99,900, \$100,900, \$102,900, \$107,900, and \$1,250,000.
- The following is the calculated mean:

$$\begin{aligned}\mu &= \frac{\sum x}{N} \\ &= \frac{94,900 + 97,900 + 99,900 + 100,900 + 102,900 + 107,900 + 1,250,000}{7} \\ &= \frac{1,854,400}{7} \\ &\approx 264,914.29\end{aligned}$$



# Measure of Location

## Understanding the data: Discussion of the mean (problems/solutions)

- **OUTLIERS:** The mean is highly influenced by extreme data values (outliers)
  - can be misleading for very skewed (positively or negatively) dataset.
- How do you propose we solve the MEAN issue?
  - **Solution1:** If you were to calculate the mean without the outlier, we would produce a value of approximately \$100,733.33. This number (more) accurately describes the other six values.
  - **Solution2:** Another thing to try would be use the Median instead.

# DESCRIPTIVE STATISTICS

## MEASURE OF SPREAD

# Measure of Spread

## What is spread?

- Measure of location alone is **insufficient** to summarize a dataset
- Another numerical measure called **measure of spread or variability** is often also needed.
- **Measures of spread** is a measure of **how far the data are spread out**.

Example: Two different dataset having the same mean:

Given 1, 4 and 7

$$\bar{x} = 4$$

Given 3, 4 and 5

$$\bar{x} = 4$$



# Measure of Spread

What is spread?

Quantitative Data

Range

Interquartile  
Range

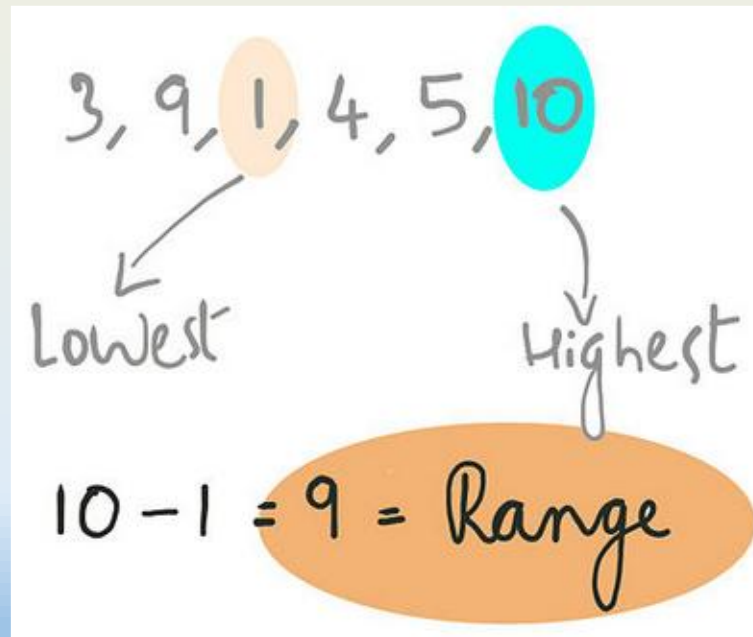
Variance

Standard  
Deviation

# Measure of Spread

## Range

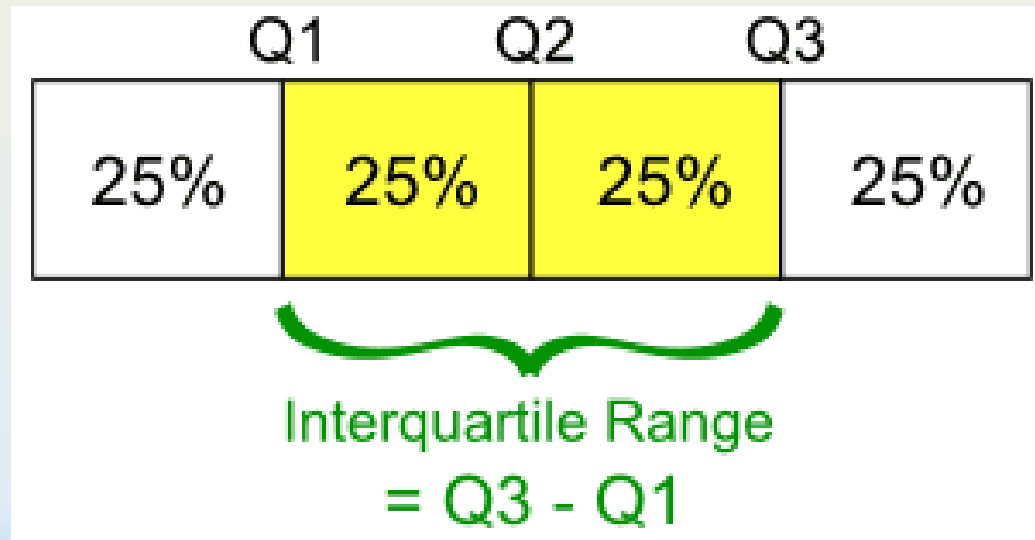
- **Range** is defined as the difference between the **lowest** and **highest** data values.
- Like **mean**, **range** can sometimes be **misleading** because it can be easily influenced by extreme data values (**outliers**).



# Measure of Spread

## Range: Interquartile range (IQR)

- **Interquartile range (*IQR*)** is defined as the difference between lower quartile  $Q1$  (25%) and upper quartile  $Q3$  (75%). Note that median is also known as middle quartile  $Q2$  (50%).

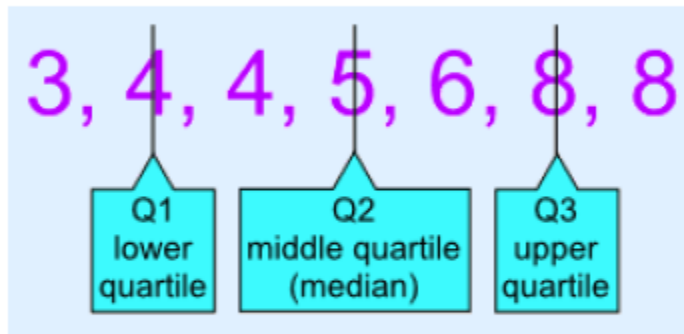


# Measure of Spread

## Range: Interquartile range (IQR): Example

- Calculate the **interquartile range** for the following
  - 3, 4, 4, 5, 6, 8, 8

Example 1: odd-number  
of data



$$\begin{aligned} IQR &= Q3 - Q1 \\ &= 8 - 4 = 4 \end{aligned}$$

Steps:

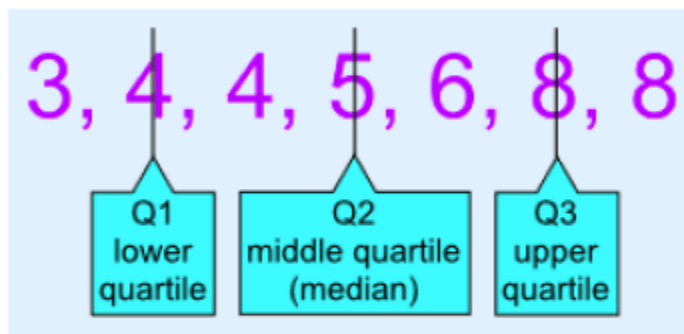
1. First sort the data (if not sorted)
2. Find the median (Q2), the value that splits the data into two groups.
3. Then find the median of the first group (Q1) and the median of the second group (Q3)

# Measure of Spread

## Range: Interquartile range (IQR): Example

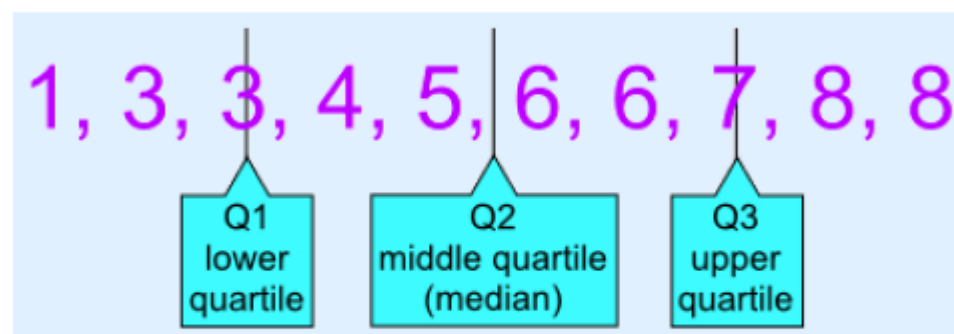
- Calculate the **interquartile range** for the following  
1, 3, 3, 4, 5, 6, 6, 7, 8, 8

Example 1: odd-number  
of data



$$\begin{aligned} IQR &= Q3 - Q1 \\ &= 8 - 4 = 4 \end{aligned}$$

Example 2: even-number of data



$$\begin{aligned} IQR &= Q3 - Q1 \\ &= 7 - 3 = 4 \end{aligned}$$

# Measure of Spread

## Range: Interquartile range (IQR): Example with Boxplot

- The lowest value, quartiles Q1, Q2, Q3 and highest value together form the so-called **five-number summary** and are commonly presented graphically in a **Boxplot**.



Example:

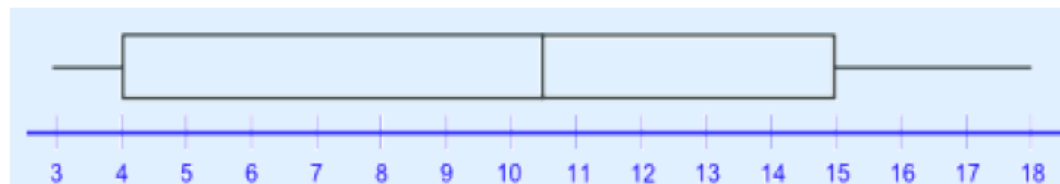
4, 17, 7, 14, 18, 12, 3, 16, 10, 4, 4, 11

Reorder and 'cut' into quartiles:

3, 4, 4 | 4, 7, 10 | 11, 12, 14 | 16, 17, 18

- The Lowest Value is **3**,
- The Highest Value is **18**

- Quartile 1 (Q1) =  $(4+4)/2 = 4$
- Quartile 2 (Q2) =  $(10+11)/2 = 10.5$
- Quartile 3 (Q3) =  $(14+16)/2 = 15$



# Measure of Spread

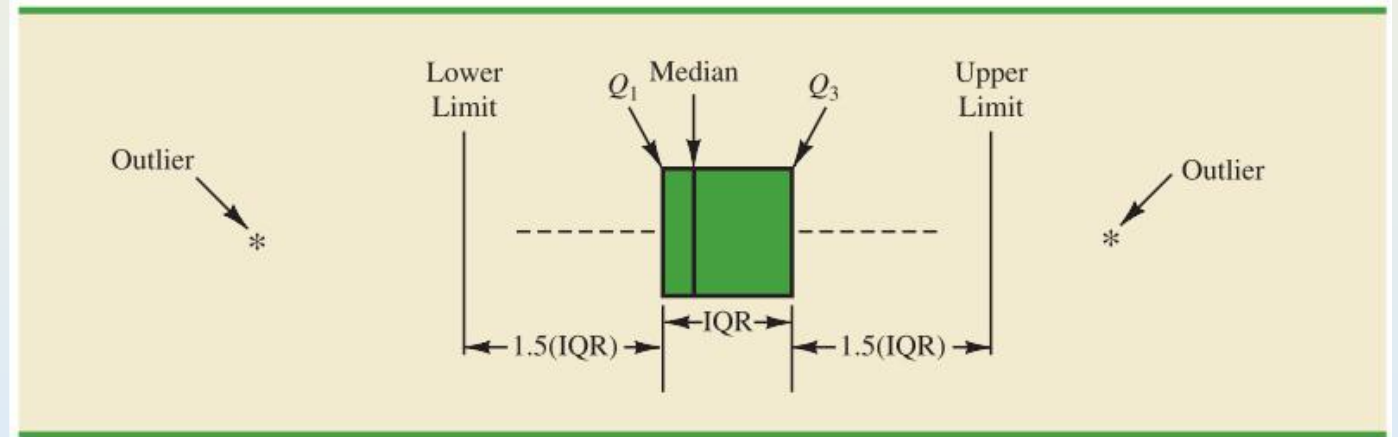
## Range: Interquartile range (IQR): Example with Boxplot Outliers

- Boxplot is also commonly called the **box and whisker plot** and note that the whisker is not drawn beyond  $1.5 \times IQR$  on both sides.
- Any data value outside of lower or upper limit are defined as **outliers** and are represented by **asterisk**, circle or square.

**Outlier** = observation falling  
below  $Q_1 - 1.5(IQR)$   
or above  $Q_3 + 1.5(IQR)$

How to handle **outliers**?

- **Legitimate** data: **keep** it
- **Error** in measurement: **discard** or **correct** it



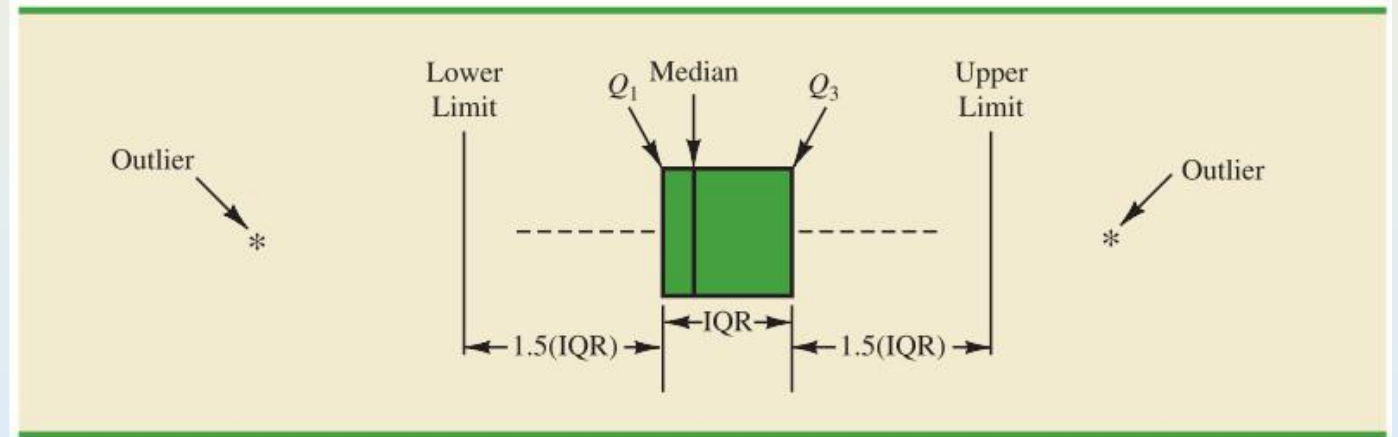
# Measure of Spread

## Range: Interquartile range (IQR): Example with Boxplot Outliers

- Boxplot is also commonly called the **box and whisker plot** and note that the whisker is not drawn beyond  $1.5 \times IQR$  on both sides.
- Any data value outside of lower or upper limit are defined as **outliers** and are represented by **asterisk**, circle or square.

**Outlier** = observation falling  
below  $Q_1 - 1.5(IQR)$   
or above  $Q_3 + 1.5(IQR)$

Ex. If  $Q_1 = 2$ ,  $Q_3 = 10$ ,  $IQR = 8$   
Outliers :  
**above**  $10 + 1.5(8) = 22$   
or **below**  $2 - 1.5(8) = -10$

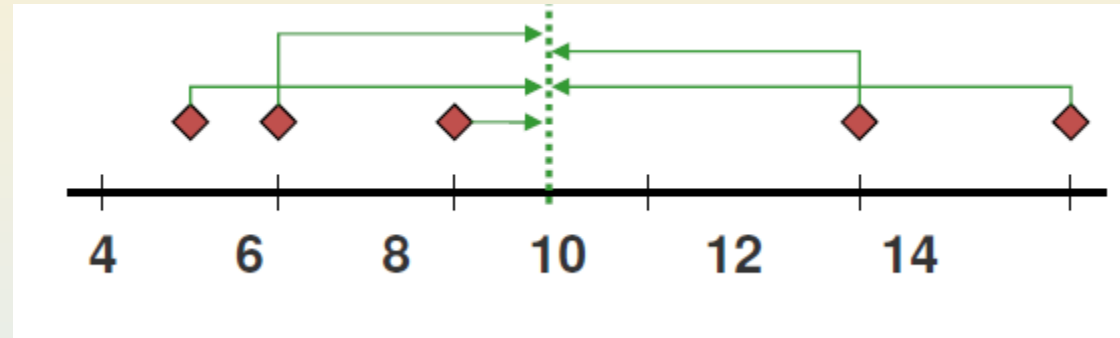




# Measure of Spread

## Variance

**Variance** is defined as the average of the **squared deviations** (“distance”) from the mean, where deviation is the difference between each data  $x_i$  and the **mean**.



Definition: **Population variance**, denoted by  $\sigma^2$ , is defined as ( $\mu$  is the population mean):

$$\sigma^2 = \frac{\sum (x_i - \mu)^2}{N}$$

Definition: **Sample variance**, denoted by  $s^2$ , is defined as ( $\bar{x}$  is the sample mean):

$$s^2 = \frac{\sum (x_i - \bar{x})^2}{n - 1}$$

where  $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$  is a **subset** of  $n < N$  data in the population.

# Measure of Spread

## Standard Deviation

- Standard deviation is related to variance and is defined as the square root of variance.

**Definition:** Population standard deviation, denoted as  $\sigma$ , is defined as:

$$\sigma = \sqrt{\sigma^2}$$

Sample standard deviation, denoted as  $s$ , is defined as:

$$s = \sqrt{s^2}$$

# Measure of Spread

## Variance & Stdev: Alternative formulae

To simplify calculations, **variance** is also commonly expressed in an **alternative** but **equivalent formula** as follows:

Alternative formula for **population variance**:

$$\sigma^2 = \frac{1}{N} \left[ \sum x_i^2 - \frac{(\sum x_i)^2}{N} \right]$$

Alternative formula for **sample variance**:

$$s^2 = \frac{1}{n-1} \left[ \sum x_i^2 - \frac{(\sum x_i)^2}{n} \right]$$

# Measure of Spread

## Variance & Stdev: Example

- Example: Consider the **sample data** 5, 12, 6, 8 and 14.
- Calculate **Variance** and **Standard Deviation**

# Measure of Spread

## Variance & Stdev: Example (Sample Variance)

Example: Consider the sample data 5, 12, 6, 8 and 14.

$$s^2 = \frac{\sum (x_i - \bar{x})^2}{n - 1}$$

|     | $x_i$ | $x_i - \bar{x}$ | $(x_i - \bar{x})^2$ |
|-----|-------|-----------------|---------------------|
|     | 5     | -4              | 16                  |
|     | 12    | 3               | 9                   |
|     | 6     | -3              | 9                   |
|     | 8     | -1              | 1                   |
|     | 14    | 5               | 25                  |
| Sum | 45    | 0               | 60                  |

$$\bar{x} = \frac{45}{5} = 9$$

$$s^2 = \frac{\sum (x_i - \bar{x})^2}{n - 1}$$

$$s^2 = \frac{60}{5 - 1} = 15$$

$$s = \sqrt{15} = 3.87$$

# Measure of Spread

## Variance & Stdev: Example (Sample Variance) Alternative calculation

- Note the simplicity of using an alternative formula to compute variance and standard deviation:

**Example:** Consider the same **sample data** 5, 12, 6, 8 and 14.

|     | $x_i$ | $x_i^2$ |
|-----|-------|---------|
|     | 5     | 25      |
|     | 12    | 144     |
|     | 6     | 36      |
|     | 8     | 64      |
|     | 14    | 196     |
| Sum | 45    | 465     |

$$s^2 = \frac{1}{n-1} \left[ \sum x_i^2 - \frac{(\sum x_i)^2}{n} \right]$$

$$s^2 = \frac{1}{5-1} \left[ 465 - \frac{45^2}{5} \right] = 15$$

$$s = \sqrt{15} = 3.87$$

# MEASURE OF SPREAD

VARIANCE & STANDARD DEVIATION FOR GROUPED DATA

# Measure of Spread

## Variance & standard deviation for grouped data

These formulae are fine when we have all our individual data points, but what if our data is grouped?

### Standard deviation formulae

$$s^2 = \frac{\sum (x_i - \bar{x})^2}{n - 1}$$

Alternative formula for **sample variance**:

$$s^2 = \frac{1}{n - 1} \left[ \sum x_i^2 - \frac{(\sum x_i)^2}{n} \right]$$



# Measure of Spread

## Variance & standard deviation for grouped data

These formulae are fine when we have all our individual data points, but what if our data is grouped? We need to consider frequency ( $f_i$ )

$$s^2 = \frac{\sum f_i * (x_i - \bar{x})^2}{n - 1}$$

$$s^2 = \frac{1}{n - 1} \left( \sum f_i * x_i^2 - \frac{(\sum f_i * x_i)^2}{n} \right)$$

# DESCRIPTIVE STATISTICS

## COEFFICIENT OF VARIATION

# Coefficient of Variation

## Risk

- Lastly, a measure of **relative variability** called **coefficient of variation** is defined as the ratio of standard deviation over mean as follows:

**Definition:** The **coefficient of variation** is **defined** as:

$$CV = \frac{\sigma}{\mu} (\times 100\%)$$

or

$$CV = \frac{s}{\bar{x}} (\times 100\%)$$

- In practice, the **coefficient of variation** is often used as a measure of **risk**.
- The coefficient of variation is useful for comparing two or more variables having **different means** and **different standard deviations**.

# Coefficient of Variation

## Risk: Example

**Example:** Investing in which stock fund is riskier, Stock Fund A or B?

| Stock Fund | Mean yearly return | Standard deviation |
|------------|--------------------|--------------------|
| A          | 10.39%             | 16.18%             |
| B          | 7.7%               | 13.82%             |

**Definition:** The coefficient of variation is defined as:

$$CV = \frac{\sigma}{\mu} (\times 100\%)$$

or

$$CV = \frac{s}{\bar{x}} (\times 100\%)$$

# Coefficient of Variation

## Risk: Example

**Example:** Investing in which stock fund is riskier, Stock Fund A or B?

| Stock Fund | Mean yearly return | Standard deviation |
|------------|--------------------|--------------------|
| A          | 10.39%             | 16.18%             |
| B          | 7.7%               | 13.82%             |

**Solution:**

Note that with different means, we cannot simply conclude that Stock Fund A is riskier because its standard deviation is larger than B.

Instead, we need to compute **relative variability**; i.e. **coefficient of variation**:

For Fund A:  $CV = \frac{16.18}{10.39} = 1.557$

For Fund B:  $CV = \frac{13.82}{7.7} = 1.795$

**Definition:** The **coefficient of variation** is **defined** as:

$$CV = \frac{\sigma}{\mu} (\times 100\%)$$

or

$$CV = \frac{s}{\bar{x}} (\times 100\%)$$

Since  $CV$  of B >  $CV$  of A, we can conclude that Fund B in fact has a higher investment risk than Fund A.

# Coefficient of Variation

## Risk

- Note: Summation of CV generally occurs when assessing risk for multiple samples

**Definition:** The coefficient of variation is defined as:

$$CV = \frac{\sigma}{\mu} (\times 100\%)$$

or

$$CV = \frac{s}{\bar{x}} (\times 100\%)$$

- In which case, we summate the “*means*” ( $\mu$ ) and the “*standard deviations*” ( $\sigma$ )
- This indicates that the **more samples**, the less the **risk**

# Introduction to Statistics

## What is we've learnt?

Statistics: **Descriptive** and **Inferential**

Type of Data: **Quantitative** and **Qualitative**

Bivariate and **contingency tables**

**Frequency Tables**, relative frequency table

Graphical representation: Bar charts and **histograms** and **boxplots**

**Measure of location**: Mean, Median, Mode

**Measure of spread**: Range, IQR, variance, standard deviation and coefficient of variation